

MEASURING AI EXPOSURE IN THE GREEK LABOUR MARKET

Communication by the Hellenic Observatory – Centre for Research on
Contemporary Greece and Cyprus to the Department of Economic
Analysis and Research of the Bank of Greece

March 2026

Interim Report –
A Comparative
Analysis of
Occupational
Indices and
Survey Evidence

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Measuring AI Exposure in the Greek Labour Market: A Comparative Analysis of Occupational Indices and Survey Evidence

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Introduction

This report presents the interim output related to the collaborative project between the Hellenic Observatory (London School of Economics) and the Department of Economic Analysis and Research of the Bank of Greece on the topic of AI and the Greek labour market. Specifically, the report covers the following tasks, as detailed in the internal workplan document developed between the two research teams in October 2025.

- A review of existing classifications of occupations with regard to AI exposure (and alternative definitions of exposure) from the international literature and a discussion of the methodologies that have been applied for the development of the corresponding AI indexes.
- The collection, processing and cleaning of a collection of AI indexes, including ones deriving from commercial and other sources (e.g., Anthropic); and their mapping onto the ISCO-08 occupational classification (using appropriate crosswalks) at which Greek employment data are published.
- A scoping exercise for the identification of data sources concerning AI use in Greece at fine occupational detail (e.g., Lightcast data) and an assessment of whether such data can be used for further analysis for the Greek case.
- A review of surveys, studies and reports that measure AI usage/adoption in Greece and discussion of the main patterns and trends identified there.
- A scoping exercise to identify the need, or scope, for conducting a primary survey to collect original information for the measurement of AI use/adoption in the country at fine occupational detail and a discussion of next steps for the completion of the project.

The reported tasks have been undertaken by the Hellenic Observatory (HO) team, with supporting communications with researchers from the Bank of Greece. The HO team has been led by Prof Vassilis Monastiriotis and comprised a large group of researchers who have contributed to various tasks underpinning this report. This includes (alphabetically) the following: Ms Margherita Casella-Iacobucci, Mr Aristomenis Chrysafis-Progopoulos, Mr Aristeidis Grivokostopoulos, Ms Naomi Izzet, Dr Ioannis Laliotis, Dr George Melios, Mr Dylan Smith, Ms Annemarie Sommer, Ms Alissa Veronesi and Prof Kostantinos Zachariadis.

The report is organised as follows. Part A presents the comparative review of AI exposure indices, organised by methodological family, as well as a brief review of the related literature with a focus on the mechanisms and dimensions of AI exposure that are discussed there. It also offers a brief presentation and discussion of the indexes that have been collated. The harmonised dataset of AI indexes, together with the crosswalk methodology that has been applied to convert the indexes into a standardized ISCO-08 format, is presented in the Appendix. Part B reviews the landscape of AI-related studies and measurements covering Greece, including information from national and international surveys that measure business adoption, public attitudes and workforce readiness with regard to AI. Part C draws conclusions from the reviews of the previous sections, reports on other actions that have been taken in relation to this project (data-related scoping exercises) and derives specific recommendations for the next steps of the project (in relation to the question of survey implementation, the mapping of AI indexes onto Greek employment data and the types of analyses that can be pursued).

PART A

A Thematic Comparative Review of AI Exposure Indices

1. Introduction

The measurement of occupational exposure to artificial intelligence (AI) has become a central concern in labour economics, driven by the rapid advance of generative AI and its unfolding implications for labour markets worldwide. This section provides a systematic comparative review of AI exposure indices, drawing on thirty-three distinct contributions from the international literature and assembling a harmonised dataset of seventeen index variants from nine independent sources, spanning nearly a decade of research – from the foundational probability of computerisation estimated by Frey and Osborne (2017) to the most recent measures derived from observed AI platform usage in 2025. The review proceeds in three parts. The first examines how the literature has conceptualised and operationalised AI exposure. The approaches fall into two broad families: potentiality-based measures, which estimate theoretical exposure from task content, occupational abilities, or the direction of AI innovation; and revealed measures, which draw on job postings, direct observation of AI tool usage, or worker self-reported AI use. Within the first family, we distinguish between rubric- and expert-driven approaches, LLM-based evaluation of task descriptions, and innovation-based measures anchored to patents or startup activity. Within the second, we distinguish between job-postings analysis, platform usage data, and survey evidence. The second part surveys the empirical literature on labour market outcomes, attending to the mechanisms through which theoretical exposure does – or does not – translate into detectable effects on employment and wages. The third, inventories the seventeen indices assembled for this study, details their crosswalk to the ISCO-08 occupational classification, and examines how they correlate and compare with one another.

2. Approaches to studying AI exposure

2.1. Potentiality-Based Approaches

The indices reviewed in this subsection share a common epistemological premise: that AI's relationship to occupational tasks can be characterised by estimating what AI systems are technically capable of performing, independently of whether workers or firms have yet deployed those systems. This potentiality-based family encompasses three methodologically distinct strands: rubric and expert-driven approaches, in which human experts, crowdsourced raters, or machine learning classifiers score tasks or abilities against criteria intended to capture AI-relevant capability; LLM-based evaluation, in which large language models score task descriptions to infer occupational exposure; and innovation-based approaches, which infer exposure from the direction of AI research or commercial development rather than from task characteristics. These strands differ considerably in their construction, their proximity to the current technological frontier, and the occupational signals they produce, yet all treat exposure as a latent property of the work itself rather than as a behavioural outcome. The review begins with the rubric and expert-driven approaches, starting from the foundational work of Frey and Osborne (2017) and tracing the development of increasingly refined measures through to the most recent contributions.

Rubric and Expert-Driven Approaches

Frey and Osborne (2017) trained a Gaussian process classifier on O*NET occupational characteristics to estimate the probability that each occupation could be automated by computer-controlled equipment. They began with 70 hand-labelled occupations and extrapolated to the full structure. The resulting scores identify occupations at risk based on bottlenecks that seemed binding at the time – routine task intensity, finger dexterity, social intelligence – but generative AI has since demonstrated capabilities in precisely the areas Frey and Osborne treated as insulated. As the correlation analysis in a later subsection will show, their index diverges sharply from every contemporary measure, suggesting that it identifies a fundamentally different set of occupations as vulnerable. The index covers 311 ISCO-08 codes. It catalysed much of the subsequent literature, but it captures computerisation risk from a pre-generative-AI era and its assumptions about what machines cannot do have not held up.

Brynjolfsson, Mitchell and Rock (2018) developed the Suitability for Machine Learning (SML) index, which evaluates O*NET task descriptions against a 23-statement rubric covering dimensions such as availability of training data, clarity of output definitions, and tolerance for error. Ratings were collected via crowdsourcing. Where later, ability-based, approaches anchor exposure to documented AI benchmark progress, SML asks a narrower question: whether a task has the structural properties that make it a plausible target for ML. The index covers 288 ISCO-08 codes. As the correlation analysis will show, this produces a different occupational signal from the ability-based and expert-assessment measures that have developed since.

In a different departure from Frey and Osborne (2017), Arntz, Gregory and Zierahn (2016) applied individual-level analysis across 21 OECD countries using PIAAC microdata, demonstrating that the unit of analysis matters considerably for exposure estimates. Where occupation-level approaches like Frey and Osborne assign a single automation probability to all workers in a given occupation, Arntz and colleagues showed that task composition varies substantially among workers within the same occupation. Once this within-occupation heterogeneity is accounted for, the share of workers at high automation risk falls to 9 per cent on average across the OECD – ranging from 6 per cent in South Korea and Estonia to 12 per cent in Germany and Austria – roughly a fifth of the 47 per cent that occupation-level estimates imply. Face-to-face interaction and non-routine task content provide meaningful insulation even within otherwise exposed occupations.

In a series of papers between 2018 and 2023, Felten, Raj and Seamans developed a family of AI exposure indices that link AI capabilities to occupational ability requirements through the O*NET database. The core methodology proceeds through a three-stage mapping: AI application benchmarks are identified from computer science metrics; these are linked to human abilities through crowdsourced surveys; and abilities are connected to occupations using O*NET importance weights. The earliest variant (Felten, Raj and Seamans, 2018) used Electronic Frontier Foundation benchmark data and a small expert panel to construct the ability-application mapping. The AIOI (Felten, Raj and Seamans, 2019) replaced this with Amazon Mechanical Turk crowdsourced surveys, producing a more replicable mapping procedure, and was the first to use the resulting index as an econometric variable in labour market regressions. The AIOE (Felten, Raj and Seamans, 2021), published in the *Strategic Management Journal*, consolidated the AI application categories from 16 to 10 and adopted a cross-sectional approach that measures the static overlap between occupational abilities and AI capabilities, rather than weighting by the rate of AI benchmark progress as the earlier variants had done. The AIOE covers 774 SOC 2010

occupations and has become the most widely used variant in subsequent applied work. Most recently, Felten, Raj, and Seamans (2023) adapted the AIOE methodology to focus specifically on generative AI, producing separate Language Modelling and Image Generation exposure variants that capture the two domains of AI capability that have advanced most rapidly since 2021. In a separate line of work, Pizzinelli et al. (2023) adjusted the Felten AIOE to account for potential complementarity between AI and human labour, producing the C-AIOE index. The adjustment modifies exposure scores to reflect the degree to which AI capabilities within an occupation are likely to augment rather than substitute for human work, a question that has become central in the empirical literature as we discuss later.

The Tolan et al. (2021) Cognitive Occupational Potential Exposure to AI (COPE) index represents a distinct but related ability-based approach, developed at the European Commission's Joint Research Centre. Unlike the Felten et al framework, which proceeds from AI benchmarks to abilities, COPE begins with occupational tasks: 59 generic tasks drawn from the European Working Conditions Survey, the OECD Survey of Adult Skills (PIAAC) and the O*NET database, harmonised using the framework of Fernandez-Macías and Bisello (2017). These tasks are mapped to 14 cognitive abilities by a multidisciplinary research team following a Delphi method, and the abilities are in turn linked to 328 AI benchmarks. This task-weighted architecture captures the cognitive profile of each occupation and assesses how much of that profile overlaps with areas of strong AI research progress. The use of quantified AI research benchmark activity as a proxy for AI progress helps bypass both expert opinion and crowdsourced ability ratings in favour of a measure that tracks where AI research effort is concentrated. While the framework is designed to be extensible as new benchmarks emerge, the actual benchmarks used predate the generative AI revolution, limiting proximity to the current technological frontier.

A separate attempt to develop a European native measure of AI potential exposure comes from Brunetti and Mussida (2025), who developed an AI occupational exposure index for Italian occupations (PAIOE) using the INAPP-ISTAT Indagine Campionaria delle Professioni (ICP) survey and five-digit national occupational codes. Following the individual-level approach of Arntz et al. (2016), the index combines both task and skill dimensions to assess exposure. The use of Italian occupational codes at five-digit granularity captures regional and sectoral variation within a single country at finer resolution than broader international classifications permit.

The study by Eloundou et al. (2024) turned the focus more directly to the LLM revolution. The authors developed an LLM Exposure Rubric that classifies O*NET tasks on a scale from E0 (not exposed) to E3 (exposed with additional software integration), defining exposure as whether an LLM or LLM-powered system could reduce the time required to complete a task by at least 50 per cent without a drop in quality. Their results carry significant nuance: LLMs directly expose approximately 14 per cent of tasks, but software integration could raise coverage to 30-55 per cent. More importantly, 71 per cent of tasks benefit from AI assistance without full automation, thus allowing for labour augmentation, while only around 1.8 per cent of jobs have more than half their tasks directly exposed to LLMs without additional software tooling and human oversight (displacement effect). Labaschin et al. (2025) drew on the Eloundou index and aggregated task-level LLM exposure scores upward to the firm level across a panel of approximately 7,900 publicly traded firms, finding that LLM exposure is pervasive and positively correlated with the count of technology workers — defined as FTEs in software development, data science, and related computing occupations. This firm-level aggregation represents a methodological step from occupational measurement toward the analysis of which firms face the greatest exposure — a question that occupation-level indices cannot address directly.

LLM-Based Evaluation

The fast progress with Large Language Models and generative AI capabilities promoted a new generation of measures leveraging on the new technology and shifting away from the use of rubrics or human (expert-based) evaluations of exposure. In one of the first studies in this stream, Eisfeldt, Schubert and Zhang (2023) used GPT-4 to score O*NET task descriptions, presenting each of over 19,000 descriptions to the model and eliciting assessments of how far generative AI could perform or assist with the task. Scores were aggregated to the occupation level, with coverage extending to 330 ISCO-08 codes. The framework decomposes exposure into core and supplemental components roughly, tasks where AI might replace workers versus tasks where it assists them – a distinction most other indices in this family do not make. The obvious question is whether GPT-4's assessments of what it can do correspond to what it actually can do in practice, a limitation that applies to any measure where the evaluator and the technology being evaluated are the same system.

Colombo et al. (2024) extended the LLM-based approach at scale with the Task Exposure to AI (TEAI) and Task Replacement by AI (TRAI) indices, rating over 19,000 O*NET tasks using multiple AI models rather than a single model. Their results align with the broader pattern in this literature: high exposure among high-skilled occupations, positive correlations with cognitive and management skills, negative correlations with social skills. A notable finding is the positive association between AI exposure and both employment and wage growth over 2003–2023, suggesting that AI has had a net positive productivity effect in exposed occupations — a pattern that sits uneasily with polarisation narratives inherited from earlier automation research.

Within the same framework, researchers at the ILO developed a set of AI exposure indexes focusing specifically on generative AI and constructed natively within the ISCO-08 classification. The first of these (Gmyrek, Berg and Bescond, 2023) used GPT-4 to score 3,123 official ISCO-08 task descriptions across 427 four-digit occupational unit groups, with a further 4,360 GPT-4-generated tasks included as a robustness check. In 2025 the index was updated, incorporating GPT-4o alongside human expert input (Gmyrek, Berg and Bescond, 2025), adding precision to the classifications and addressing in part the critique mentioned above in relation to the Eisfeldt index.

Another attempt to developing internationally comparable exposure estimates using the ISCO-08 occupational classification was offered by Nurski and Ruer (2024). Like previous studies, the authors used GPT-4 to evaluate tasks across occupations, producing a consistent zero-to-one exposure score applicable across countries. The measure, developed in a Bruegel working paper, is distinct from the ILO Gmyrek indices in both methodology and data source, though both share the feature of being directly applicable to European and international labour market analysis without crosswalks from the US SOC system.

A recent study for the UK used the LLM-based approach adapted specifically to the country case. Henseke et al. (2025) offer an interesting variant of the LLM-based approach. The authors used task descriptions calibrated specifically to the British labour market, mapping the resulting exposure scores to the UK occupational classification. The resulting Generative AI Susceptibility Index shows widespread but moderate exposure concentrated in high-skill roles.

Innovation-Based Approaches

A distinctively different approach within the potentiality-based family is represented by the early work of Webb (2019), who, concurrently with the rubric-approach developments, developed an AI exposure index drawing on patent data. His approach grounds exposure not in what AI can do but in where AI innovation is heading. Specifically, Webb's methodology analyses the textual overlap between AI patent descriptions and O*NET task descriptions, producing a measure of how directly each occupation's work content intersects with active AI research and commercialisation. The logic is that patent filings reveal the priorities shaping future applications, even if those applications have not yet materialised. Webb also distinguishes AI patents from software patents more broadly and finds that the two target different parts of the occupational distribution. The index covers 288 ISCO-08 occupations after crosswalking from SOC 2010. Its 2019 vintage limits its proximity to current AI capabilities, though the methodology could be updated with more recent filings.

A different path within this innovation-based sub-group was taken by Fenoaltea et al. (2024), who constructed an AI Startup Exposure (AISE) index by matching descriptions of Y Combinator-funded AI startups to O*NET occupational task descriptions. The approach uses commercially oriented startup activity as a proxy for where AI development effort is concentrated, rather than relying on patent filings or academic benchmarks. The resulting exposure patterns do not map neatly onto prior classifications: startups show substantial interest in routine tasks but limited interest in high-stakes occupations where liability and regulatory scrutiny are high. The authors also produce a Robotic Startup Exposure (RSE) index using the same methodology.

Martínez-Plumed et al. (2020) developed a matrix-based framework linking AI research activity to labour tasks, enabling bidirectional analysis: from AI capabilities to affected occupations, and from occupational needs to gaps in AI research. The authors explicitly frame the framework as prescriptive rather than predictive, intended to guide research prioritisation by identifying mismatches between where AI development is concentrated and where labour market needs are greatest.

2.2. Revealed-Use Approaches

The indices reviewed so far all estimate what AI could in principle do to occupational tasks. A smaller but growing set of measures starts instead from what AI tools are actually being used for, and can be grouped into job-postings analysis, platform usage data, and survey-based self-reports. Job-postings analysis measures employer demand for AI-related skills from vacancy data, while platform usage data draw on observed interactions with AI tools, and survey-based self-reports rely on workers' accounts of their own AI use. Our harmonised dataset contains indices only from the platform-usage subgroup (Tomlinson and Anthropic); the job-postings and survey subgroups are represented in the broader literature reviewed here but not in our collected index data.

Job-Postings Analysis

This strand of research seeks to measure directly employer demand for AI-related skills, providing a labour-market-demand perspective that complements the task-based and usage-based approaches. In a first study on this strand, Alekseeva et al. (2021) measured employer demand

for AI-skilled labour through the ratio of AI-related job postings to total postings, using Burning Glass vacancy data from 2010 to 2019. AI demand grew substantially over this period, concentrated in information, professional services, and technical sectors, and skewed toward larger firms with higher R&D intensity. Postings requiring AI skills commanded wage premiums within the same firm and job title.

Acemoglu, Autor, Hazell and Restrepo (2022) extended the job-postings approach at the establishment level, confirming that AI-exposed establishments were simultaneously eliminating previously demanded skills and introducing new ones — evidence of task reallocation rather than simple workforce reduction. The study also used multiple exposure indices (Felten AI-OI, Webb, SML) to examine which measures best predict actual AI hiring, a comparison discussed later in this Part.

Two recent studies have utilised job-postings data collected by two of the industry leaders in the field – Lightcast and Rebelio Labs. Hosseini and Lichtinger (2025) analysed job postings from Revelio data with a focus on how AI exposure varies by employment seniority, examining whether junior or senior roles are more affected by shifts in AI-related skill demand. Hampole et al. (2025) derived task-level exposure to AI from Lightcast job-postings data, providing a job-postings-based measure of occupational exposure that complements the vacancy-share approach of Alekseeva et al. and the establishment-level analysis of Acemoglu and colleagues.

The Indeed Hiring Lab (2025), in turn, produced a GenAI Skill Transformation Index by identifying approximately 2,900 work skills from US job postings and scoring each for generative AI transformation potential using AI models. The index includes automation and augmentation sub-indexes, making it one of the few measures that distinguishes between displacement and complementarity. The methodology is hybrid: the skills universe is drawn from job postings, but the transformation scores are AI-generated rather than derived from posting content.

Usage-Based Measures

A second strand within revealed approaches draws on observed interactions with AI platforms, capturing what workers and firms are actually doing with AI tools rather than what employers are hiring for.

Tomlinson et al. (2025) construct an AI Applicability index from Bing Copilot usage data, combining user-side goal completion rates with AI-side action scope. The measure captures both whether users achieve their goals with AI assistance and whether AI contributes meaningfully to task completion. Coverage extends to 327 ISCO-08 codes, derived from SOC 2018 classifications.

The Anthropic Economic Index (2025) derives occupational exposure scores from approximately one million anonymised Claude.ai conversation logs. Each conversation is mapped to an O*NET task description via Anthropic's Clio classification tool, and the resulting distribution of task frequencies across occupations produces a measure of where Claude is actually being used. The index decomposes into automation and augmentation components based on the type of interaction observed: directive exchanges and feedback loops count as automation; validation, iterative refinement, and learning count as augmentation. The version in our dataset covers one week of global consumer platform data (13-20 November 2025), normalised so that the most-used occupation scores 1.0. Coverage is nominally complete at 345 ISCO-08 codes, but the

distribution is heavily top-loaded: only 18 occupations score above 0.1, reflecting the concentration of Claude usage in software development, teaching, and IT support during the observation window.

Patwardhan et al. (2025) developed GDPval, a measure of how advanced AI models actually perform on real-world economically valuable tasks. The approach produces speed ratios and cost ratios comparing AI-assisted workflows directly against human labour, grounding exposure estimates in observed performance rather than rubric-based potential. This makes it particularly useful for identifying tasks where AI is simultaneously faster and cheaper than human workers — the conditions under which near-term economic displacement is most plausible.

Handa et al. (2025) mapped professional Claude transcripts to O*NET task categories, finding that AI performs well on tasks requiring structured transformation, summarisation, and rule-based reasoning; assists but does not fully substitute on tasks requiring iterative context; and fails on tasks requiring tacit knowledge or physical interaction. The boundary between AI-assisted and AI-replaced tasks in observed usage aligns more with the structured-versus-unstructured dimension than with the routine-versus-nonroutine framing inherited from earlier automation research.

Building on the same underlying Claude.ai conversation data as the Anthropic Economic Index described above, Appel et al. (2025) developed the Anthropic AI Usage Index measuring geographic AI use relative to working-age population. They found strong correlations with national income: Singapore over-indexes by 4.6 times and Canada by 2.9 times, while India under-indexes at 0.27 times. Enterprise API usage is 77 per cent automation-dominant, suggesting that early corporate adoption is concentrated on displacement-oriented applications. This geographic and firm-level unevenness echoes the hiring-side heterogeneity documented in the job-postings literature.

Finally, Daniotti et al. (2025) analysed code contributions on GitHub and linked them to O*NET task descriptions, providing revealed evidence on AI tool usage patterns in software development. The study does not produce a formal index but offers granular behavioural data on how AI tools are integrated into coding workflows. Similarly, Chatterji et al. (2025) classified 18 billion ChatGPT messages and found that non-work usage has grown faster than work usage and now represents over 70 per cent of messages. Among work-related tasks, writing dominates at roughly 40 per cent. Around half of users are under 26, and usage growth is fastest in middle-income countries. These patterns suggest that the demographic and geographic profile of early AI adoption differs from what occupation-based exposure indices would predict.

Survey-Based Self-Reports

A third strand relies on workers' own accounts of their AI use, collected through structured surveys. While a large body of worker surveys exists that capture AI use in the workplace, development of occupational AI exposure indexes from surveys is limited by the fact that such a task requires very large survey samples, which are not typical.

Bick, Blandin and Deming (2024) used the Real-Time Population Survey and the Survey of Working Arrangements and Attitudes to measure self-reported AI use for work by occupation in the United States. The study does not produce a formal exposure index but provides survey-based evidence on which occupations report active AI use — a behavioural complement to the task-based and

platform-derived measures reviewed above. In turn, Humlum and Vestergaard (2025) conducted a large-sample self-administered survey on AI exposure in Denmark, focusing on 11 three-digit ISCO occupations. The survey captures workers' own assessments of how AI affects their tasks, providing a Nordic counterpart to the US-based self-report evidence.

3. Employment Effects and Mechanisms

The relationship between occupational AI exposure and actual labour market outcomes is neither mechanical nor uniform. A growing body of empirical work suggests that the type of tasks affected, not merely the degree of exposure, determines whether AI integration leads to workforce displacement, wage compression, or employment expansion.

Acemoglu (2025) provides a parsimonious macroeconomic framework distinguishing pro-worker AI applications that raise labour productivity from automation-oriented applications that substitute capital for labour. His estimates suggest that the productivity gains from current AI deployment are modest relative to the investment required, implying that much of AI's near-term labour market impact operates through compositional shifts in task allocation rather than aggregate output effects. The framework cautions against interpreting high exposure scores as proxies for imminent job loss: exposure captures the technical feasibility of AI application, not the economic incentive to deploy it.

Autor and Thompson (2025) sharpen this point by demonstrating that the direction of employment effects depends on which tasks AI targets within each occupation. When AI automates entry-level tasks, headcount contracts but wages rise, because remaining workers perform more specialised functions. When AI automates expert tasks, headcount expands but wages fall, because the occupation becomes accessible to a broader labour pool. Their case studies of bookkeepers (entry-level automation, declining employment, rising wages) and inventory clerks (expert-task automation, expanding employment, falling wages) illustrate that identical levels of measured exposure can produce opposite labour market trajectories depending on task composition.

The work of Vasilaukas and Horrigan (2025) also speaks to this point. The authors linked occupational exposure scores to Bureau of Labor Statistics 2023–2033 employment projections, examined separately for different types of occupations. Their findings are two-sided: high-skill occupations where AI is expected to enhance productivity — accountants, information security analysts, engineers — are projected to expand, while routine cognitive occupations that are also highly exposed — data entry clerks, payroll clerks, customer service representatives — are projected to decline. Further evidence on the differentiated employment impact of AI is provided by Brynjolfsson, Chandar, and Chen (2025), who used ADP payroll data to examine employment effects across AI-exposed occupations since late 2022. Their study found that early-career workers aged 22–25 in AI-exposed occupations experienced 16 per cent relative employment declines, but that this effect was concentrated in occupations where AI primarily automates tasks. Occupations where AI augments human work saw employment growth over the same period.

A recent study by Hampole et al (2025) has focused more directly on the balance between direct substitution (displacement) effects and indirect reallocative effects of AI. The authors build a

theoretical model of within-firm labour demand, focusing on the extensive and intensive margins of AI exposure on job tasks. Their empirical analysis provides causal evidence showing that, “despite strong substitution at the task level, overall employment effects are modest, as reduced demand in exposed occupations is offset by productivity-driven increases in labor demand at AI-adopting firms”.

Evidence from the Anthropic Economic Index (Anthropic, 2025) adds another dimension to this differentiation. The study finds that, while highly exposed occupations exhibit no systematic increase in unemployment (since late 2022), hiring of young workers (aged 22–25) in the same occupations declined by roughly 14 per cent in the same period. This suggests the existence of a new ‘hiring channel’ mechanism, whereby employers reduce new recruitment rather than displace incumbent workers, a dynamic that aggregate employment statistics would not capture in the near term. The same study unveils another interesting observation, concerning the gap between theoretical and observed exposure. While AI capability assessments suggest that 94 per cent of tasks in computer and mathematical occupations could be assisted by current models, observed usage data from Claude interactions show actual engagement at roughly 33 per cent. This gap between potential and realised exposure complicates any direct mapping from index scores to employment effects.

The differential impact of AI on jobs according to their skills and expertise content, leads naturally to questions about the overall wage effects of AI. Addressing this issue, Acemoglu, Autor, Hazell, and Restrepo (2022) drew on establishment-level vacancy data in the USA, providing a two-tier analysis (at the occupation/industry and establishment levels). Their analysis revealed that job postings with AI requirements concentrate in high-skill cognitive occupations at larger, R&D-intensive firms and command wage premiums that risk widening skill-based wage gaps. Their establishment-level analysis showed a significant shift in the demand for skills, suggesting a pattern of task reallocation rather than simple workforce reduction: AI-exposed firms simultaneously ceased posting vacancies for previously demanded skills and began requiring skills not previously sought. Yet, no corresponding employment or wage effects were detected at the occupation or industry level. The conclusion drawn by the authors was that AI adoption is reshaping task composition within adopting firms but remained (at the period of study) too limited in scale to generate aggregate consequences.

Complementary evidence on the skill-demand and wage effects, beyond the US context, has been provided by Henseke et al. (2025). Using data for the United Kingdom, the authors found that, following the release of ChatGPT, the price premium for AI-exposed task content fell approximately 12 per cent relative to 2017 levels, implying a significantly negative wage effect in line with the displacement hypothesis; while job postings in highly exposed occupations dropped 5.5 per cent below what pre-ChatGPT hiring patterns would have predicted. Recent evidence from Italy (Brunetti and Mussida, 2025), using the PAIOE index, indicates that AI exposure is positively associated with wages for occupations at the top of the wage distribution but this association dissipates for wages below the median, suggesting that AI exacerbates wage inequality. A recent article, published in the *Works in Progress* magazine (Mousa, 2025), has questioned these negative wage predictions. Focusing on the case of radiologists, where AI benchmark performance exceeds human performance on diagnostic tasks, the article documents that employment and salaries have risen in the sector despite increasing AI exposure. While the author links this development to regulatory and institutional factors (rather than an augmentation effect under the so-called Jevons paradox), the publication – in this non-peer-reviewed outlet – has sparked an extensive discussion about the degree to which AI exposure and

AI performance metrics are good predictors for job risks, given the complexity and multidimensionality of workplace tasks performed by humans.

A large number of other studies has emerged that use different variants of the AI exposure indexes reviewed above to estimate employment effects both on aggregate and for specific groups of individuals. Georgieff and Hye (2021) used the Felten index on a sample of OECD countries and found no significant employment effects from AI. Using the same family of indexes, Guarascio et al (2023) found a positive relationship between AI-exposure and employment growth at the regional level. Albanesi et al (2025) and Cazzaniga et al (2025) focused on the gender dimension, finding both favourable results (a growing female employment share in occupations with higher AI-exposure) and adverse results (women in AI-exposed occupations women at the bottom of the wage distribution make more frequent transitions to inactivity).

Summarising, the empirical literature on the labour market effects of AI has moved, in a quite short period of time, from a general concern about the negative displacement effects to a debate about the automation-versus-augmentation distinction concerning different tasks and abilities, and more recently to the role of expertise and even task-exposure intensity/concentration as key mediating factors. Workers with deeper domain knowledge and specialising in a diverse set of tasks appear better positioned to use AI as an augmentation tool, translating exposure into productivity gains rather than displacement risk. Conversely, workers performing tasks that require less specialised judgment and a narrower range of abilities face higher substitution risk, particularly in contexts where AI output quality approaches or exceeds human performance on routine cognitive tasks. This expertise gradient suggests that the same occupation may experience augmentation at its upper end and displacement at its lower end, a pattern that occupation-level indices cannot fully capture but that the automation-augmentation decompositions begin to approximate.

For the Greek context, these findings carry specific implications. Greece's comparatively low rates of enterprise AI adoption (see discussion in Part B) suggest that the hiring-channel effects observed in the United States may emerge with a lag, creating a window for policy intervention. The predominance of SMEs and public sector employment in Greece may further delay transmission from exposure to employment effects, since smaller firms face higher fixed costs of AI integration and public sector employment decisions are less responsive to productivity incentives. The expertise dimension is particularly relevant given Greece's documented digital skills gaps: if AI's labour market effects are mediated by worker expertise, then the gap between exposure and readiness documented later becomes a policy-relevant vulnerability rather than a statistical artefact.

4. The Harmonised Index Dataset

Drawing on the reviewed of section 2, we engaged in an extensive exercise seeking to collect the occupational classifications produced by as many of the indexes reviewed there as possible. We assembled seventeen index variants from nine independent sources, covering the period 2017–2025. Table 1 summarises what each of them measures, where it comes from, and what it covers. The collection includes four variants from the Felten framework (AIOE, AIOI, Language Modelling GenAI, and Image Generation GenAI); three from Eisfeldt, Schubert and Zhang (total, core, and supplemental generative AI exposure); three from the Anthropic Economic Index (total,

automation, and augmentation); two from the ILO (Gmyrek 2023 and 2025); and one each from Webb (patent-based AI exposure), Brynjolfsson, Mitchell and Rock (Suitability for Machine Learning), Frey and Osborne (probability of computerisation), Tolan et al. (COPE), and Tomlinson et al. (AI Applicability). The indices span the two families described in section 2: thirteen are potentiality-based, deriving theoretical exposure from task content, abilities, patent text, or LLM evaluation of task descriptions; four are revealed, drawing on observed usage of AI platforms.

Table 1: Comparison of AI Exposure Indices

Index	Authors/Year	Methodology	Native Classification	ISCO-08 Coverage	Score Range
Felten family	Felten, Raj & Seamans (2021, 2023)	Ability-based: AI benchmark progress mapped to occupational abilities via O*NET	SOC 2010	304–329/345 (88–95%)	Continuous (centred)
Eisfeldt variants	Eisfeldt, Schubert & Zhang (2023)	LLM-based: GPT-4 evaluation of O*NET task descriptions	SOC 2010	330/345 (96%)	0–1 (probability)
Claude variants	Anthropic (2025)	Revealed-use: Claude.ai consumer platform conversation logs mapped to O*NET tasks via Clio classification tool	O*NET / SOC	345/345 (100%)	0–1 (normalised)
ILO Gmyrek	Gmyrek, Berg & Bescond (2023, 2025)	Task-based: Expert assessment of GenAI task exposure	ISCO-08 2-digit	345/345 (100%)	0–1 (mean exposure)
Webb AI	Webb (2019)	Patent-based: Textual overlap between AI patents and occupation tasks	SOC 2010	288/345 (84%)	Continuous
SML	Brynjolfsson, Mitchell & Rock (2018)	Rubric-based: 23-statement ML suitability rubric applied to O*NET tasks via crowdsourcing	SOC 2010	288/345 (84%)	Continuous (higher = more suitable)
Frey and Osborne	Frey and Osborne (2017)	Expert-Gaussian process: Probability of computerisation	SOC 2010	311/345 (90%)	0–1 (probability)
Tolan COPE	Tolan et al. (2021)	Ability-based: AI benchmark progress across 14 cognitive abilities	ISCO-08 3-digit	335/345 (97%)	0–1 (normalised)
Tomlinson AI Applicability	Tomlinson et al. (2025)	Revealed-use: Bing Copilot usage patterns by occupation	SOC 2018	327/345 (95%)	0–0.28 (continuous)

Note: Felten family includes AIOE (2021), AIOI (2023), Language Model GenAI (2023), and Image Generation GenAI (2023). Eisfeldt variants include Total, Core, and Supplemental components. Claude variants include Total, Automation, and Augmentation components. ILO Gmyrek includes 2023 and 2025 versions.

A practical obstacle to comparing these indices is that they originate in different occupational classification systems. Six sources — Felten, Eisfeldt, Webb, Brynjolfsson/SML, Frey and Osborne, and the Anthropic usage data — are native to the US Standard Occupational Classification (SOC 2010), while Tomlinson uses the more recent SOC 2018. The ILO Gmyrek indices and Tolan COPE are the only two measures in our dataset constructed natively at the

ISCO-08 classification, something that obviates the need for the SOC-to-ISCO crosswalks that can introduce noise in other indices. The COPE index, however, is only available at 3-digit level, covering 115 minor occupational groups. For the ILO indices a 4-digit version exists, but our dataset contains only a restricted 2-digit version of these. To enable comparison, all indices were mapped to ISCO-08 at the four-digit level. This means that for the COPE and ILO indices all 4-digit occupations within each minor group receive identical scores – an aggregation that imposes a ceiling on occupational precision but ensures comprehensive coverage and comparability across indices.

For the remaining indexes, the primary crosswalk instrument is the IBS Poland SOC-2010 to ISCO-08 concordance, containing 1,131 mapping entries across 839 SOC 2010 codes and 436 ISCO-08 codes. The relationship between the two systems is many-to-many: a single SOC occupation can map to several ISCO codes and vice versa. Where this occurs, the methodology applies equal-weight averaging — a SOC occupation mapping to n ISCO codes contributes its score equally to each, and when multiple SOC sources feed into a single ISCO code, their contributions are averaged. This preserves the bounded nature of probability-scaled indices while avoiding double-counting. The Tomlinson index required an additional step: approximately 40 occupational codes were restructured between SOC 2010 and SOC 2018, particularly in information technology, physician, and health aide occupations. These were manually mapped to their SOC 2010 equivalents before the standard crosswalk was applied.

Coverage varies across indices. The Anthropic and ILO indices achieve complete coverage of all 345 four-digit ISCO-08 codes in our dataset (the latter via propagation). Tolan COPE covers 335 (97 per cent, via propagation). The Felten AIOE covers 329 (95 per cent), Eisfeldt 330 (96 per cent), and Tomlinson 327 (95 per cent). Webb and SML have more limited coverage at 288 each (84 per cent), and Frey and Osborne covers 311 (90 per cent). These differences arise from variations in the scope of the original data, the vintage of the classification system used, and the granularity of the source taxonomy.

The assembled indices leave of course some gaps. None is derived from job-postings data. Commercial providers such as Lightcast and Revelio hold extensive databases of Greek job postings (Lightcast reported 1.17 million postings for 2018–2025; Revelio reported 1.67 million), and these could in principle support a revealed-demand index measuring employer appetite for AI-related skills at the occupational level. Acquisition costs proved prohibitive within the parameters of this project — Lightcast quoted \$15,000 with single-paper restrictions; Revelio quoted \$22,000 — and this remains an avenue for future work.

The Anthropic usage data offer a second gap specific to the Greek context. While the global dataset covers approximately one million conversations, the Greece-specific subset contains only around 2,200 conversations, the majority of which could not be mapped to standard occupational categories. This is too thin to support occupation-level analysis for Greece.

More fundamentally, no Greek equivalent of O*NET exists. The Italian INAPP-ISTAT Survey on Occupations, which underpins the Brunetti and Mussida (2025) Italian exposure index, surveys 16,000 workers to map task content across occupations. Greece has no comparable instrument. This means that all occupation-level exposure analysis for Greece must rely on indices constructed from US or international task libraries, with the assumption that occupational task content is sufficiently similar across countries — an assumption that holds better for some occupations than others.

Table 2: Spearman Rank Correlation Matrix Across AI Exposure Indices

	Felten AIOE	Felten AIOI	Felten LM	Felten Img	Eisfeldt	Webb	SML	Claude	ILO 2023	ILO 2025	F&O	COPE	Tomlinson
Felten AIOE	1.000	0.845	0.863	0.767	0.661	0.092	0.229	0.587	0.641	0.701	-0.311	0.784	0.595
Felten AIOI	0.845	1.000	0.861	0.877	0.550	0.146	0.266	0.435	0.640	0.719	-0.248	0.801	0.571
Felten LM	0.863	0.861	1.000	0.697	0.520	-0.055	0.266	0.556	0.692	0.730	-0.305	0.740	0.648
Felten Img	0.767	0.877	0.697	1.000	0.489	0.297	0.178	0.447	0.493	0.605	-0.403	0.789	0.506
Eisfeldt	0.661	0.550	0.520	0.489	1.000	0.111	0.184	0.515	0.509	0.552	-0.020	0.617	0.429
Webb	0.092	0.146	-0.055	0.297	0.111	1.000	-0.094	-0.052	-0.106	-0.042	-0.218	0.153	-0.112
SML	0.229	0.266	0.266	0.178	0.184	-0.094	1.000	0.136	0.346	0.346	0.240	0.204	0.348
Claude	0.587	0.435	0.556	0.447	0.515	-0.052	0.136	1.000	0.470	0.511	-0.285	0.572	0.467
ILO 2023	0.641	0.640	0.692	0.493	0.509	-0.106	0.346	0.470	1.000	0.962	-0.034	0.739	0.639
ILO 2025	0.701	0.719	0.730	0.605	0.552	-0.042	0.346	0.511	0.962	1.000	-0.115	0.825	0.634
F&O	-0.311	-0.248	-0.305	-0.403	-0.020	-0.218	0.240	-0.285	-0.034	-0.115	1.000	-0.360	-0.062
COPE	0.784	0.801	0.740	0.789	0.617	0.153	0.204	0.572	0.739	0.825	-0.360	1.000	0.562
Tomlinson	0.595	0.571	0.648	0.506	0.429	-0.112	0.348	0.467	0.639	0.634	-0.062	0.562	1.000

Note: Spearman rank correlations computed on ISCO-08 4-digit occupations with pairwise complete observations. Green shading indicates $\rho \geq 0.70$; red shading indicates $\rho \leq -0.20$; grey diagonal = 1.000.

In any case, it is interesting to examine how the assembled indexes compare to one another. Table 2 reports Spearman rank correlations across the thirteen principal index variants at the four-digit ISCO-08 level. As can be seen, indices within the same methodological family tend to agree with one another. The four Felten variants correlate between 0.697 and 0.877. The two ILO Gmyrek versions correlate at 0.962, indicating near-identical occupational rankings despite the methodological refinements introduced in 2025. The Anthropic indices show substantial internal coherence across their total, automation, and augmentation components.

Concerning the associations across families, we observe moderate only convergence. The rubric and expert-driven indices (Felten variants and COPE) correlate with one another in the range 0.740 to 0.888. The ILO Gmyrek measures correlate with these at 0.641 to 0.825. The Eisfeldt LLM-based measure correlates with the rubric-based indices at 0.489 to 0.662 — overlapping but not the same thing. The Tomlinson and Anthropic revealed-use indices correlate with rubric-based measures at 0.467 to 0.648, indicating that where AI is actually being used has some correspondence with where potentiality-based measures say it could be used, but far from a one-to-one mapping.

The Frey and Osborne index correlates negatively with nearly every contemporary measure: correlation is -0.311 with the Felten AIOE, -0.403 with the Felten Image Generation GenAI, -0.360 with the COPE index and -0.285 with the Anthropic index. The occupations Frey and Osborne identified as most vulnerable to computerisation in 2017 — data entry clerks, contact centre salespersons, accounting associate professionals — are systematically ranked as less exposed by indices calibrated to current AI capabilities. Conversely, the occupations that contemporary indices rank highest — software developers, university teachers, database professionals — were rated as relatively safe by Frey and Osborne. The two sets of rankings are essentially inverted.

Rather similarly, the Webb patent-based index correlates near zero with almost everything else, ranging from -0.112 (Tomlinson) to 0.297 (Felten Image Generation GenAI). This could mean it captures something genuinely distinct — the direction of AI innovation rather than current capability — or it could mean the mapping from patent text to occupations is too noisy to produce a stable signal. Either way, it does not converge with the other measures. Finally, the SML index shows weak positive correlations with most contemporary measures (0.136 to 0.348) but,

unusually, a positive correlation with Frey and Osborne (0.240). This suggests SML captures automation potential more aligned with traditional machine learning — tasks with clear inputs, outputs, and training data — than with the generative AI capabilities that dominate the more recent indices.

Table 3: Top 5 and Bottom 5 Occupations by Selected AI Exposure Indices

Rank	Felten AIOE	Claude Total	ILO Gmyrek 2025	Frey & Osborne	Tomlinson
1	University and higher education teachers	Software developers	General office clerks	Data entry clerks	Contact centre salespersons
2	Biologists, botanists, zoologists and related prof	University and higher education teachers	Secretaries (general)	Contact centre salespersons	Advertising and marketing professionals
3	Social work and counselling professionals	Database and network professionals not elsewhere c	Typists and word processing operators	Photographic products machine operators	Authors and related writers
4	Mathematicians, actuaries and statisticians	Software and applications developers and analysts	Data entry clerks	Clearing and forwarding agents	Announcers on radio, television and other media
5	Statistical, finance and insurance clerks	Applications programmers	Systems analysts	Accounting associate professionals	Philosophers, historians and political scientists
...					
B-4	Plastic products machine operators	Athletes and sports players	Cleaners and helpers in offices, hotels and other	Health services managers	Medical assistants
B-3	Electrical mechanics and fitters	Health associate professionals	Domestic cleaners and helpers	Psychologists	Nursing associate professionals
B-2	Agricultural and industrial machinery mechanics an	Petroleum and natural gas refining plant operators	Garden and horticultural labourers	Social welfare managers	Forestry technicians
B-1	Motor vehicle mechanics and repairers	Town and traffic planners	Mixed crop and livestock farm labourers	Audiologists and speech therapists	Roofers
Bottom	Building construction labourers	Chemical engineers	Crop farm labourers	Education methods specialists	Domestic cleaners and helpers

Naturally, these indexes produce different rankings of occupations concerning their AI exposure. Table 3 reports the five highest- and lowest-ranked occupations for a selection of indices. The Felten AIOE ranks university teachers, biologists, social work professionals and mathematicians at the top — occupations whose work draws heavily on abilities where AI benchmarks have advanced fastest. The Anthropic usage index puts software developers and IT professionals at the top, reflecting where Claude is actually being used rather than where it theoretically could be. The ILO Gmyrek index highlights clerical occupations — general office clerks, secretaries, data entry clerks — reflecting a focus on task routineness within the generative AI frame. Frey and Osborne's top five — data entry clerks, contact centre salespersons, photographic products machine operators — is anchored to a conception of automation that generative AI has overtaken. There is no occupation that appears in the top five of all indices. At the bottom, convergence is somewhat stronger. Manual, physical, and outdoor occupations — construction labourers, farm labourers, machinery mechanics, roofers — consistently rank low across measures, reflecting that current AI does not reach work involving physical manipulation, outdoor environments, or face-to-face service delivery.

5. Conclusion

This review shows a range of AI exposure indices characterised by variety of methods, partial convergence, and important divergences. The rubric and expert-driven approaches offer theoretically grounded measures with good granularity but require ongoing updates to remain current. The LLM-based evaluation approaches provide scalable task-level scoring but face questions about the validity of self-referential assessment. The innovation-based approaches capture where AI development is heading rather than what it can currently do. The revealed approaches from job postings, platform usage, and worker self-reports ground measurement in observed behaviour but are limited to specific platforms, time windows, and populations. For empirical research on AI and labour markets, a multi-index approach that draws on the complementary strengths of these methodologies while acknowledging their limitations may offer the soundest basis for inference. The negative correlations between Frey and Osborne and contemporary measures serve as a cautionary note about the rapid pace of AI development and the importance of methodological currency in this domain. For the case of Greece in particular, which is the focus of this report, the absence country-specific data on AI use across occupations makes the multi-index approach not only advisable but seemingly unavoidable.

PART B

Survey Evidence on AI Adoption, Attitudes, and Workforce Readiness in Greece

1. Introduction

Recent years have seen a proliferation of surveys on AI adoption and readiness, both by commercial and by institutional actors. Greece is not an exception to this. Our extensive exploratory investigation of the AI information landscape in Greece revealed over 60 surveys, or measurement-based studies, which provide coverage of the country either as part of an international sample or with a single-country focus. Table 4 presents a selected summary of these.

Table 4: Selected Survey Evidence on AI Adoption and Attitudes in Greece

Source	Year	What it Measures	Key Greece Finding	Limitation
Eurobarometer 554	2024	Public attitudes toward AI	80% believe AI will replace more jobs than it creates (highest in EU)	Cross-sectional, attitudinal only
Eurostat ICT Use Survey	2023-2025	Enterprise and individual AI use	GenAI use 49.5% (above EU avg 32.7%); enterprise adoption 8.9% (below EU avg 13.5%)	Narrow definition of enterprise AI
DESI/Digital Decade	2021-2024	Digital economy indicators	Ranked 25th/27 EU member states; 33.5% enterprises combine AI, cloud, data analytics	Composite index, limited AI focus
Cedefop EU AI Skills Survey	2025	Workplace AI use and skills gaps	Highest fear of job loss (24%); lowest workplace AI use (21%); 51% report AI skill gaps	11-country sample, Greece-specific N not reported
Adecco Global Workforce of the Future	2025	Worker AI adoption and attitudes	84% GenAI use at work (vs 89% global); 42% save time for strategic thinking	500 Greek respondents, global comparative focus
ELSTAT ICT Use Survey	2025	Individual AI tool use	49.5% used AI tool; 92.8% for private use, 36.5% for work	No occupational breakdown
Focus Bari Longitudinal	2021-2024	ChatGPT adoption tracking	Account ownership: 21% (Jul 2023) → 36% (Nov 2024)	Non-probability online sample
diaNEOsis Survey	2023	Public attitudes toward AI	69.7% concerned about labour impacts; 62.4% optimistic re health applications	Single wave, attitudinal only
EIB Investment Survey	2023, 2025	Enterprise digital investment	33% AI use (2023); only 5% invested specifically in AI (2025)	Broad definition, enterprise-level only
SEV Surveys	2023, 2025	Enterprise AI adoption	25.4% any AI experience (2025); 55.1% no AI plans; 39.8% cite skills shortage	Federation membership sample

Amongst all surveys, almost a fifth concern the measurement of public attitudes and public awareness towards AI. This includes official surveys such as the European Commission's Eurobarometer (waves 460, 503, 554 and 557); surveys conducted by, or on behalf of, think tanks such as diaNEOsis (What Greeks Believe series) and EterON (From Artificial to Collective Intelligence project); as well as surveys conducted by corporate actors (NielsenIQ, Focusbari, Accenture / Microsoft Hellas). Some of these surveys combine further information about workforce readiness, focusing in particular on workforce skills, use of AI and training needs. This concerns mainly official surveys – such as the ELSTAT/Eurostat ICT Use Survey (e.g., series isoc_ai_ialu on “use of generative AI tools by individuals”), the OECD ChatGPT usage survey and Cedefop's EU AI Skills Survey – although commercial surveys are also present (e.g., Deloitte's Gen Z and Millennial Survey).

The majority of surveys, however, focus on business readiness and adoption of AI, covering both the general population of firms and specific sectors of the economy. Examples of studies with economy-wide coverage include Eurostat's ICT Usage and E-commerce in Enterprises survey and the European Investment Bank's EIB Investment Survey, as well as studies conducted by commercial actors such as PwC (Annual Global CEO Survey), Deloitte (Deloitte Greece Innovation Survey), Accenture (AI Questionnaire for the Greek organization) and AWS (Strand Partners' Unlocking Greece's AI Potential 2025). A large number of studies have recently been conducted also by research labs and business associations in collaboration with commercial partners, some of which focus on specific sectors or types of businesses (e.g., SMEs). This includes the Hellenic Federation of Enterprises (SEV) Pulse surveys and SEV Digital Maturity Index, the ELTRUN/ENTERSOFTONE AI Readiness Index for SMEs, the Deloitte/SEPE survey on The Impact of Gen AI on the Greek Economy, and the Cosmote/ELTRUN SME Digital Maturity survey. In addition, a number of studies and policy reports by influential research centres and commercial actors have also been published recently: from McKinsey's The State and Potential of Gen AI, Google's The Economic Opportunity of AI in Greece and Statista's Artificial Intelligence Greece market forecast to the international comparison indexes produced annually by Oxford Insights, Tortoise Media, Boston Consulting Group, IMD and others.

This wealth of surveys and studies provides a detailed if fragmented picture of AI adoption and readiness in Greece. The remainder of this section synthesises the main findings, organised around four themes: the national context, public attitudes toward AI, workforce AI readiness and business adoption patterns. National-level studies of AI readiness sketch a picture of relatively low adoption but with a fast-rising potential, both in terms of institutional capacities and in terms of framework conditions. AI user surveys – for employees and for the general public – reveal a mixed picture of extensive use by individuals, both inside and outside their work environment, but significantly lagging adoption of AI systems in the workplace. Business surveys corroborate this, with results indicating very low rates of strategic deployment of AI tools by businesses and, despite some dynamism observed in particular sectors and types of firms, a low demand for AI skills and limited awareness of AI challenges and opportunities. Part of this picture can be explained by Greece's economic structure, dominated by very small firms and family businesses, especially in sectors with low digital technology penetration. Ultimately, however, the evidence from the studies covering Greece unveils a significant gap between individual technological engagement and corporate integration of AI systems and tools into the production process, reflecting essentially a fundamental tension between AI exposure potential and actual AI readiness in the country.

2. Review of studies

2.1. Country rankings and national framework conditions

In its latest report drawing on its Digital Economy and Society Index (DESI), the European Commission (COM, 2025) offers a mixed assessment of the country's digital readiness, commending on Greece's fast progress with digital connectivity infrastructure and the "encouraging growth rate in the digitalisation of small and medium-size enterprises", but also raising concerns about existing digital gaps across segments of the population, shortages of digital skills (ICT specialists) and the slow adoption of AI and related technologies (cloud, data analytics, etc). The DESI index ranks Greece 23rd of 27 EU member states, with only 33.5 per cent of enterprises having any of AI, cloud, and data analytics in 2023 (EU average: 54.6 per cent) and only 4% of enterprises reportedly using any AI technology.

Similar is the picture with other indexes offering international comparisons. The latest Oxford Insights Government AI Readiness Index (2025 edition) ranks Greece 42nd out of 195 countries (up from 59th in the 2024 edition), but well below comparators such as Spain or Portugal. The country is assessed positively in domains such as policy vision/commitment and government digital policy (and e-government delivery) but has very low scores for domains such as 'compute capacity', AI sector maturity and AI technology diffusion. Greece's performance in the Global AI Index published by Tortoise Media also places Greece in a medium AI position globally (42nd out of 83 countries), but well behind the frontier (score 9.24/100). The index concentrates on key aspects relating to investment, innovation and implementation of artificial intelligence and finds Greece to perform better with regard to AI intensity (performance benchmarked on the size of the economy) but significantly worse in absolute terms (AI 'scale') and extremely poorly in areas concerning innovation (such as commercial, development and others). Indeed, drawing on this data, it is estimated that Greece lags approximately 50 per cent behind the European average in AI and digital transformation penetration (Tortoise Media/McKinsey, 2024). Greece also performs poorly in the recently published BCG AI Maturity Matrix (Boston Consulting Group, 2024) with a position on the AI readiness metric well below the median globally and particularly large gaps in areas such as AI skills, investment and research & innovation. The AI readiness gaps of Greece are also corroborated in wider metrics, for example the IMD Digital Competitiveness rankings. In its 2025 report, the IMD ranks Greece 49th out of 69 economies overall but only 55th (up from 60th in 2022) in terms of 'future readiness' with a particularly low score in terms of 'business agility' (65th out of 69 countries).

These composite rankings, consistently positioning Greece in the bottom tier of digital readiness, contrast rather starkly with recent efforts in the policy front, with Greece taking an active role in terms of AI/digital developments, both in terms of strategic documents (Digital Transformation Bible 2020-2025; Blueprint for Greece's AI Transformation) and in terms of strategic investments ('Daedalus' supercomputer, Pharos AI Factory, Archimedes Unit / Athena Research Center, AI-MATTERS satellite, Digital Realty ATH1-4, Lancom Balkan Gate, etc). It appears that, despite this recent government activism and some evidence of acceleration in business experimentation, Greece is at a relative handicap with regard to AI readiness, in part due to its economic structure (BIS, 2025), an issue on which we return later in this report.

2.2. Public Attitudes: high engagement, deep anxiety

A first point of departure for the review of AI-related surveys in Greece, is the evidence in relation to public opinions and attitudes towards AI. Eurostat's Eurobarometer series provides the broadest evidence on this, with a cross-national comparative perspective. Special Eurobarometer 554, fielded in April-May 2024, found that 80 per cent of Greeks believed AI would replace more jobs than it creates, the highest proportion in the European Union and substantially above the EU average of 66 per cent (Verian Group, 2024). This reflects a general anxiety and pessimism about the employment effects of AI. More recently, Special Eurobarometer 557 shows that some 66% of Greeks believe that AI can improve worker safety and security (below the EU median) and 91% agreed that AI requires careful management (above the EU median). Only 4% of Greeks trust fully scientific research and discoveries that are created with the help of AI. Earlier waves of the Eurobarometer series confirm the persistence of Greek anxiety. Eurobarometer 460, conducted in 2017, positioned Greece among the EU's most reserved countries regarding robots and AI, while the 2019 Oxford Commission survey similarly located Greece among the most sceptical Mediterranean nations on AI deployment in decision-making contexts.

Yet this anxiety coexists with remarkably high rates of individual AI use. A NielsenIQ survey across 15 EMEA countries found that while only 30 per cent of Greeks trusted AI to make decisions affecting them, 85 per cent reported familiarity with AI terminology (NielsenIQ, 2025). Eurostat data for 2025 recorded Greece among the EU leaders for generative AI use, with 49.5 per cent of those aged 16-74 having used an AI tool in the preceding three months, well above the EU average of 32.7 per cent, and the highest rate in the EU for youth (aged 16-24) at 83.5 per cent. The 2025 ELSTAT ICT Use Survey found that 49.5 per cent of Greeks aged 16-74 had used an AI tool, though predominantly for private purposes (92.8 per cent of users) rather than work (36.5 per cent) or education (25.4 per cent). The Focus Bari longitudinal series, tracking Greek adults since 2021, recorded ChatGPT account ownership rising from 21 per cent in July 2023 to 30 per cent in February 2024 and 36 per cent by November 2024, with approximately one in two Greeks reporting use of some AI tool by year-end (Focus Bari, 2021-2024). Consistent with this, the 2025 ChatGTP usage survey conducted by the OECD ranked Greece 16th out of 51 countries in ChatGTP usage with nearly 40% of Greek internet users reportedly using ChatGPT.

The diaNEOsis "What Greeks Believe" survey of approximately 3,300 respondents provided deeper texture: over 50 per cent held negative feelings about AI and 69.7 per cent expressed concern about labour-market consequences, yet optimism was higher regarding applications in health (62.4 per cent) and time management (58.5 per cent). The Eteron Institute's November 2024 survey found a near-even split between optimists (34.9 per cent) and pessimists (37.1 per cent), with transparency (41.7 per cent) and legislative initiatives (39.8 per cent) identified as top priorities for safe AI deployment. Earlier reports (Accenture, 2019) also showed a split between optimism and pessimism with 43% of Greeks expressing concern about "what an AI future might entail" and 46% stating that they feel optimism or excitement. Still, acceptance of AI in daily lives seems to be above average: a recent study by the Vodafone Institute for Society and Communications found that only 30% of the Greek respondents question the reliability of AI-generated content, while 74% believe digital dialogue offers new opportunities. Some of these results are underpinned by substantial cross-sectional differences in the population. For example, according to the 2025 Spring Global Attitudes Survey by Pew Research, the percentages of Greeks feeling "more concerned than excited" about the increased use of AI in everyday life vary from 18% in the 18-34 age group to 59% in the 50+ age group. The same study reports a

substantial gap also in terms of knowledge about AI, with those over 50 years of age reporting that they have heard or read a lot about AI at 20% (one of the lowest percentages amongst all OECD countries covered by the study) and those in the 18-34 age bracket reporting one of the highest percentages globally (68%) (Pew Research, 2025) .

On the whole, the pattern unveiled by the survey evidence on public attitudes suggest a population that is embracing AI tools with considerable speed (especially for younger ages), but whose enthusiasm is largely confined to personal and informal uses, accompanied by persistent concern about broader implications.

2.3. Workforce Readiness: AI fluency and skills gaps

The evidence from surveys concerning the use of AI in the workplace and the AI skills of the labour force in Greece corroborates this conclusion drawn above – and points to substantial structural deficits with regard to workforce AI readiness. Cedefop's EU AI Skills Survey, the first representative survey of its kind, covering 5,342 employees across eleven EU member states, found that Greece exhibited the highest fear of complete job loss due to AI (24 per cent, against a survey average of 15 per cent), the lowest workplace AI usage among the countries studied (21 per cent vs 28 per cent EU average), and 51 per cent of respondents reporting AI-related skill gaps (Cedefop, 2025). Skill gaps appears as an important issue also in business surveys. For example, in the European Enterprise Survey on AI conducted by Ipsos in 2020, over 50% of Greek businesses reported skill shortages as a key barrier to AI adoption. Shortage of qualified personnel appeared as a significant business constraint with regard to AI adoption also in the survey conducted by SEV in 2023 (with 39.8 per cent of respondents agreeing) and earlier in the Accenture/Microsoft study of 2019 (68 per cent of respondents). Greece's statistics on ICT employment (based on DESI data) are exemplifying this point: the share of ICT specialists to total employment in the country, at 2.4 per cent, is the lowest in the EU.

Despite this rather negative picture, other surveys give a much more optimistic view of workforce AI readiness and AI use in the country. Among younger workers, Deloitte's Gen Z and Millennial Survey found that 42 per cent of Greek Gen Z respondents used generative AI daily at work in 2025, while 45 per cent believed AI would improve their work in 2024, suggesting rapid behavioural change even absent formal organisational support. A study for Google (Implement Consulting Group, 2024) reported that 35% of surveyed businesses said that their employees use GenAI regularly – even if AI adoption by the same firms was at 4%. More tellingly, a recent IMF study (Jaumotte et al, 2026), examining millions of job-postings globally and matching job vacancy trends with employment data, shows for Greece that digital skills supplied by the workforce stand well in excess of the digital skills demanded by businesses, resulting in a significant digital 'skills imbalance' (ranked 32nd out of 36 countries).

Last, important detailed information about workforce AI readiness and AI use comes from Adecco Group's Global Workforce of the Future 2025 survey. The survey covers 37,500 workers across 28 countries including approximately 500 in Greece, providing comparative data on AI adoption among Greek employed workers (Adecco Group, 2025). Survey results report generative AI usage at work in the Greek sample only modestly lower (84 per cent) than the global average (89 per cent). Greek respondents ranked AI agents (43 per cent vs 33 per cent globally) and generative AI (42 per cent vs 44 per cent) among the top megatrends influencing their working lives, signaling both high awareness and high exposure to AI; while amongst those using AI in their

work, Greek respondents reported higher percentages of time-saving due to AI (with 51 per cent saving 45 minutes to 2 hours daily, vs 44 per cent globally), allocating saved time disproportionately toward strategic thinking (42 per cent vs 31 per cent) and quality-checking (40 per cent vs 30 per cent). Critically, however, only 58 per cent of Greek workers (compared to 71 per cent globally) reported facing no barriers to AI adoption, with the remaining 42 per cent citing job-role irrelevance (17 per cent vs 7 per cent), distrust of AI (10 per cent vs 4 per cent), and inability to access the technology (7 per cent vs 2 per cent) as the main obstacles.

In conjunction, the workforce readiness surveys point to a complex picture with mixed signals. On the one hand, business report skill shortages as a factor limiting AI adoption; on the other hand, AI usage and digital skills seem to be in excess supply in the Greek workforce. Likewise, workers report high rates of AI usage and AI fluency, but at the same time they report above average AI-related skill gaps (Cedefop, 2025) and very limited AI-related training. A conjecture, compromising these conflicting messages, could be that AI workers are generally exposed to basic AI tasks using basic AI skills (e.g., ChatGPT prompts), but are much less exposed to integrated AI systems in the workplace and thus also feel less ready and not sufficiently trained to perform more complex AI-assisted tasks (and perhaps to compete with AI) if business adoption and deployment of such systems accelerates in the near future.

2.4. Business Adoption: the elephant in the room

Enterprise-level AI adoption in Greece presents a contrasting picture to individual use. As mentioned already, official Eurostat data, applying a relatively narrow definition of AI use, recorded Greek enterprise adoption at approximately 4 per cent, substantially below the EU average of 13.5 per cent. Broader survey methodologies yield higher figures but confirm the same relative position: an AWS/Strand Partners survey of 1,000 Greek businesses reported 34 per cent AI use by 2025, a 55 per cent year-on-year increase that was the second-fastest in Europe, though only 12 per cent of large firms had a formal AI strategy. The National Bank of Greece found that 31 per cent of SMEs had engaged with AI tools, but only 6 per cent used them strategically. Importantly, the same study found also a long tail of SMEs (over 20%) with no plans for AI investment in the future.

A survey of around 600 businesses conducted by the Hellenic Observatory in 2024 in collaboration with Adecco Hellas found also very low percentages of AI dynamism. Of the firms with active job openings, only 45% reported that AI skills were relevant for the post; while 40% reported no skill gaps from the digital transition. Similarly, the survey by Deloitte on behalf of SEPE in the same year found that only 15% of surveyed firms were experimenting with GenAI, while 66% of tech firms had no adjusted strategy. A separate study by Deloitte (2024), covering a small sample of large firms, reported that only a third (33%) were planning to invest in AI over the next two years; while PwC's survey of 41 CEOs found that only 24 per cent of Greek chief executives were comfortable embedding AI in their operations, against an EU average of 34 per cent. The surveys conducted by the Hellenic Federation of Enterprises (SEV) confirm a picture of persistent fragmentation. In 2023, 12 per cent of businesses applied AI and 21 per cent planned to do so, while 65 per cent did not consider it necessary. By 2025, the SEV survey showed improvement but continued division: 25.4 per cent reported any AI experience, with marketing and sales (56.3 per cent) and internal operations (50.4 per cent) the most common areas of application, yet 55.1 per cent had no AI plans for the coming year.

A series of nationally representative surveys by the ELTRUN lab at the Athens University of Economic and Business have focused specifically on AI adoption and AI strategies by small and medium enterprises (SMEs). The surveys are utilised to produce an AI Readiness index, which classifies businesses into five groups (Elementary, Basic, Medium, Advanced, and Ideal) based on the adoption and use of 10 key digital tools and types of digital infrastructure. The 2025 version of the AI Readiness Index found that one in three SMEs is experimenting with AI (mirroring the SEV survey finding that 66 per cent of SMEs do not consider AI necessary), but only one in twenty uses advanced tools for programming or data analytics, with over 80 per cent recognising AI's potential in finance, accounting, and supply chains but only 40 per cent judging their data quality sufficient for the use of AI tools. In addition, only 6% were using bots for customer support and only one in 50 were using automated emailing agents – with nearly half of all SMEs reporting that they have no plans for deploying any AI tools for customer engagement in the future. The results from the 2024 edition indicate that less than a quarter of SMEs had digital sales (e-shop) and, amongst them, more than half had e-shop revenues that represented less than 10% of total sales. On the other hand, around one third of SMEs reported to have been using cloud services.

The European Investment Bank Investment Surveys provide a useful cross-check with international patterns and trends. The 2023 EIBIS data indicate that intangible asset investment covering R&D, software, training, and business processes accounted for 33 per cent of total business investment in Greece, not too dissimilar to the EU average (36%), but investment specifically in software, data, IT and website activities stood at nearly half the value of the EU average showing a significant gap in digital deepening. The 2025 wave, focusing on generative AI specifically, found adoption rates of 19 per cent among Greek SMEs and 27 per cent among large firms, against an EU average of 37 per cent; while broader digital technology adoption stood at 56 per cent in Greece versus 77 per cent across the EU.

This discrepancy between reported "use" (e.g., in the AWS/Strand Partners survey) and dedicated "investment" (e.g., in the EIB surveys), as well as the information deriving from the domestic surveys by ELTRUN, SEV and others, suggests that much Greek adoption involves informal use of off-the-shelf tools rather than integrated AI implementation. Some studies cite structural barriers for this. Besides the shortage of qualified personnel, which was mentioned earlier, other factors cited across surveys include high implementation costs (EIB survey: 64-65 per cent; Google/Implement survey: 60 per cent), low trust (Google/Implement survey: 58 per cent; NielsenIQ survey: 70 per cent distrust), and insufficient data infrastructure (ELTRUN survey: 60 per cent inadequate data quality). These shortcomings aside, it should be also noted that Greece's sectoral composition, weighted toward agriculture, tourism, and construction – sectors with limited AI applicability – further constrains the scope for AI penetration. Besides this, however, the country also lags in terms of its ability to convert scientific research into business implementation, as is reflected by its record of commercial AI application relative to its scientific output (McKinsey, 2024).

3. Conclusion

The survey evidence reviewed here paints a picture of a country where individual curiosity about AI has substantially outpaced institutional – and especially business – capacity to absorb it and capitalise on it. Greeks are among the most active users of generative AI tools in Europe, yet Greek

enterprises, particularly SMEs, remain near the bottom of EU adoption rankings, with the majority viewing AI as either unnecessary or inaccessible. Public attitudes combine high usage with high anxiety, particularly regarding employment, while the workforce reports the EU's largest AI skill gaps and the lowest rates of employer-provided AI training. Greece's sectoral and firm-size composition limits the scope of AI's near-term economic impact, making the bridging of the digital skills gap and the deepening of enterprise adoption all the more consequential for the country's medium-term growth trajectory. Taken together, the evidence points to a seemingly structural imbalance between, on the one hand, segments or elements of high AI potential and, on the other, a wider landscape of low-depth AI readiness in the country.

PART C

Discussion and Next Steps

1. Main takeaways

The engagement of the international literature with the labour market consequences of automation dates back to the early studies on so-called skilled-biased technological change (e.g., Katz & Murphy, 1992) and the work of Autor and co-authors on the skill-composition effects of computerisation and the impacts of automation on occupations specialising in routine versus cognitive tasks (e.g., Autor, Katz & Krueger, 1998; Autor, Levy & Murnane, 2003; Autor & Dorn, 2013). As attention was shifting to the effects of ‘robotisation’ (Graetz & Michaels, 2015; Acemoglu & Restrepo, 2018), a seminal contribution on computerisation by Frey and Osborne (2017) opened up a new field of research, which sought to measure the theoretical exposure of jobs and occupations to computer technology (computer-controlled equipment) drawing on the O*NET Occupational Information Network developed by the US Bureau of Labor Statistics which provides a comprehensive database linking the universe of occupations to specific skills, abilities and tasks.

The emergence of general-purpose artificial intelligence since the late 2010s, and subsequently the rapid advancement of generative AI systems capable of sophisticated language and image manipulation, has precipitated a shift of scholarly attention from computerisation and robotisation towards the potential implications of AI. Over a short period of time, multiple methodological approaches to measuring occupational exposure to AI have emerged. Our review has identified two broad families of such approaches. The first encompasses potentiality-based measures, which estimate theoretical exposure from task and ability characteristics — whether through expert rubrics and crowdsourced assessments, LLM-based evaluation of task descriptions, or innovation-based measures drawing on patents and startup activity. The second encompasses revealed measures, which draw on observed behaviour: job-postings data capturing employer demand for AI-related skills, platform usage data from tools such as Claude and Bing Copilot, and survey-based self-reports of workers' own AI use.

Drawing on such measures, the literature has moved from examining the potential exposure of jobs and occupations to AI, typically finding a large human displacement potential, to more granular analyses which examine the variable degrees to which AI augments the productivity of human labour by focusing on the extent to which it automates fully or only partially tasks traditionally performed by humans (resulting in replacement versus augmentation, respectively). Amongst the gloomiest predictions about the displacement effect, Frey and Osborne (2017) estimated that as much as 47% of US employment was at high risk of automation in a period of 10-20 years. In contrast, the study by Eloundou et al. (2024) reports that, while more than 71% of tasks have at least some component that could be performed to high quality by AI-related technologies, only around 1.8 per cent of jobs have more than half their tasks directly exposed to LLMs without additional software tooling.

The main takeaway of this literature is that AI exposure operates at the sub-task level, with most occupations containing both automatable and non-automatable components. With this, early predictions of wholesale technological unemployment have given way to more nuanced assessments emphasising heterogeneity across occupations in exposed tasks. More recently, this distinction has identified the role of expertise as a key factor (e.g., Autor and Thompson, 2025): for some tasks, AI operates to decrease expertise requirements, enhancing displacement risks as workers become replaceable by AI tools; yet in others, AI raises the importance of domain knowledge (expertise) and operates to raise the productivity of workers possessing such

knowledge/expertise (augmentation effect). In any case, however, a consensus exists that, unlike with previous waves of automation that targeted low-skill routine work, AI disproportionately exposes high-skill cognitive work – while social, face-to-face, and physically demanding tasks, and jobs that draw on a diverse set of cognitive abilities, remain comparatively insulated.

The AI indexes that have developed internationally (an important subset of which has been analysed in this report), and their evolution over time, reflect naturally the deliberations taking place in the literature concerning the augmentation and displacement effects of AI. Early indexes focused more on the theoretical exposure of different occupations based on the probability of automation / computerization of the tasks performed by people working in these occupations (e.g., Frey and Osborne, 2017). The work of Felten and co-authors in the early 2020s shifted the focus on (human) abilities and the extent to which these can be substituted by AI tools, taking also into account the dynamic evolution of AI abilities as well as the differences in exposure by different types of AI (e.g., Language Modelling versus Image Generation). The most recent Anthropic Economic Index (2025) derives occupational exposure scores from observed Claude.ai conversation logs, decomposing usage into automation and augmentation components based on the type of interaction observed, linking directly to relevant discussions in the literature about labour-saving automation and pro-worker augmentation (Acemoglu, 2025).

Our correlation analysis of these indexes corroborates this evolutionary tale. The Claude-based AI index (Anthropic) shows moderate positive correlation with the AIOE index of Felten et al (2021) and negative correlation with the index developed by Frey and Osborne (2017). Out of the top-5 most threatened occupations according to the Frey and Osborne metric (Data entry clerks, Contact centre salespersons, Photographic products machine operators, Clearing and forwarding agents, Accounting associate professionals), there is none that appears in the top-5 lists of the Felten and Anthropic indexes.

2. The Greek context

The burgeoning interest on the labour market impacts of AI has not left Greece unaffected. Although no original metric exists that seeks to measure AI exposure for tasks performed by workers (consistently across occupations) in the Greek labour market, there is a large and growing number of studies that have tried to sketch a picture of the degree of AI adoption by Greek businesses and the degree of AI readiness by workers in Greece. This includes both studies conducted by commercial actors such as PwC, Deloitte, Accenture, AWS, McKinsey, IMD and others; and surveys conducted by official institutions (Eurostat ICT Use Survey, OECD ChatGPT Use Survey, Cedefop EU AI Skills Survey), domestic business associations (SEV, IME-GSEVEE, SEPE) and academic research centres (Hellenic Observatory, LSE; ELTRUN, AUEB). The general picture that emerges from these surveys (as reviewed in Part B of this report) is that, although the intensity of both business AI adoption (and awareness) and workforce AI readiness seems to be changing fast and in a short period of time, overall adoption in Greece is still relatively low. Individual use of AI tools is – rather surprisingly – particularly widespread (based on self-reported data) while a large proportion of workplace use of AI is also individual-level driven (i.e., exercised by employees but without necessarily company-level deployed AI systems and tools). At the same time, individuals express both an anxiety about the possible labour-displacement effects of AI and a hesitancy about their own readiness to apply AI tools and systems in their work. On

the ‘demand’ side, businesses also report on average low AI adoption rates and a relatively low demand for AI skills overall in the economy, with particularly low scores in the share of businesses that have adopted formally a strategy for embedding AI in their operations and a rather long tail of firms which do not consider AI adoption as immediately relevant or urgent.

Although these surveys are informative, they do not provide sufficiently large samples via which to calculate occupation-specific metrics of AI exposure or adoption. In addition, of course, no task-based library exists for Greece (similar to the US-based O*NET, or the Italian Sample Survey on Professions developed by INAPP) that would allow the application of methodologies developed in the international literature to the Greek landscape of jobs and tasks. Efforts to develop a Greek-specific index drawing on job-postings data are still at early stage, as electronic job-postings in the country are not as plentiful or as comprehensive (covering as close as possible the whole universe of job-openings) as in other countries. As a result, the closest approximations to examining empirically the potential impact of AI in the country have come from two studies which have utilised AI indexes from the international literature. The first of these is by Tyros (2025) for Eteron Institute. The study utilised the Felten et al (2021) index, mapping it onto 3-digit ISCO occupational data for Greece to analyse the extent of thus defined AI exposure across occupations, sectors, regions and gender groups in the country. The second study (Kollia and Sideris, 2025), conducted for INE-GSEE, used instead the Frey and Osborne (2017) and Gmyrek et al (2023) measures, producing a similar analysis. Neither study, however, placed Greece in a comparative cross-country context. This, together with the speed at which different indexes become dated and AI tools become upgraded, makes the insights derived from such studies of limited information value.

3. Report on the scoping exercises

The plan for the project entailed two scoping exercises, both to be undertaken collaboratively between the research teams of the Hellenic Observatory and the Bank of Greece. The first concerned the identification of data sources measuring AI use in Greece at fine occupational detail (e.g., Lightcast data) and an assessment of whether such data can be used for further analysis for the Greek case. The second concerned the evaluation of the prospect of conducting a primary survey, within the boundaries of the project, to collect original information for the measurement of AI use/adoption in the country, again at fine occupational detail.

After some initial interactions with the Bank of Greece team, the LSE team examined in detail the possibilities available under the first scoping exercise. We examined specifically three options. First, the option of obtaining (and processing) job-posting data directly from LinkedIn using an API (for obtaining the data) and an LLM client (for identifying job openings with AI-related skills and the occupations to which they correspond). Second, the option of obtaining commercially available job-postings data from companies such as Lightcast or Revelio, which include information on the skills and abilities sought after in each job-opening. Third, the option of deriving a usage-based measure from the Anthropic data, drawing on the part of the sample which concerns Greece-based users only.

Analysis of the last option revealed that the coverage of Greece-based users in the Anthropic data is extremely limited: at the time of last inspection (17 February 2026), the data contained approximately 2,200 Claude conversations, the majority of which could not be reliably mapped

to standard occupational categories. Examination of the Lightcast and Revelio data showed that coverage is significantly more extensive. Our enquiry with Lightcast (in late January 2026) indicated that their database contains 342,367 worker profiles with current or past jobs in Greece and a total of 1,169,785 job postings covering the period 2018-2025 (with 178,364 job postings in 2025 alone). Marginally bigger numbers were reported by Revelio (1,668,258 job postings for the period 2018-2025). Both sources make their data commercially available. For Lightcast, the cost for acquiring the complete data for Greece was quoted at \$15,000, with the restriction that data can be used “for one research paper” only (i.e., the data would have to be re-purchased if the research resulted in a second research paper). For Revelio the equivalent cost was quoted at \$22,000 (including profile data, activity data and job-postings), with a somewhat looser restriction on use. Given the completeness of the job-posting data available through Lightcast and Revelio, the remaining option (use of API to obtain LinkedIn job-postings directly) was not examined in significant detail. Through word of mouth we know that other researchers may be working on utilising this source and there may be early-entry advantages in that, which we will not possess.

Concerning the second scoping exercise (scope of conducting a primary survey), our exploration (including via the review of studies as presented in Part B) directed us to advise against this option. AI-related employer surveys are by now well established in Greece. They include surveys by official actors (ELSTAT/Eurostat), whose sampling and surveying technologies are significantly superior to what we can match with an ad hoc survey; and specialist teams of researchers (ELTRUN) which possess significantly higher resources as well as an entry advantage. Possible institutional collaborators, with entities that could act as facilitators for our survey (SEV, EBEA, Adecco), also did not seem particularly viable as an option, as such entities are already engaged in similar surveys conducted by other research units and commercial survey providers. More importantly, business surveys collect information that can only be aggregated at the sectoral level, thus lacking the occupational detail that is of interest to this project (granularity at 3-digit or 4-digit ISCO level). Individual-level worker surveys are more suitable for collecting information with occupational detail. However, in this direction, too, our exploration indicated that the field is already somewhat congested but also that, for an accurate measurement of AI use/exposure at fine level of occupational granularity (minimum 345 occupational groups), our primary research would need to survey over 10,000 individuals. We note that the INAPP-ISTAT Survey on Italian Occupations, which measures task content across occupations, has a sample of 16,000 workers; while the Greek Labour Force Survey, which produces 3-digit occupation statistics for the country, has a sample of about 40,000 individuals.

4. Discussion of next steps

As has been agreed, the first phase of the collaborative project (Year 1) should be completed by end of August 2026 and should proceed up to Task B.1 of the list of tasks elaborated in the Workplan document. This interim report completes Tasks A of the Workplan, concerning specifically the review of the international literature and the survey evidence on AI use/adoption in Greece (Task A.1), the collection and processing of AI exposure indexes from the international literature and the examination of the availability of Greece-specific AI metrics at fine occupational detail (Task A.2), as well as the scoping exercise for the execution of a specialist business / employee survey (Task A.3). The next steps for the completion of the first phase of the

project concern the tasks identified as Task B.1a (preparation of the employment data) and Task B.1.b (preparation of the AI indexes) in the Workplan document.

Concerning the employment data, the attempts by the two research teams to obtain access to the EFKA micro-data, which would provide sufficient occupational granularity (at ISCO-08 4-digit level), have been unsuccessful. Given this, the Hellenic Observatory team has contacted the Mechanism of Labour Market Diagnosis (MEKY) of the Hellenic Ministry of Labour and Social Insurance, in order to obtain aggregate employment data with occupational, sectoral, regional and gender/education-level detail. This data derives from the Greek Labour Force Survey, complemented with data from ERGANI (for job flows). The data offers 3-digit granularity for occupations and, subject to this, 1-digit detail for sectors of economic activity and NUTS2-level geographical detail (not combined). While this level of granularity is below the granularity observed in (some of) the collated AI indexes (and below the level of granularity desired), it is assessed as sufficient for the completion of the tasks outlined for this project. Concerning the AI indexes, the acquisition costs for the commercially available Greek-specific data (e.g., Revelio) are assessed as forbidding within the parameters of the current project; and the same applies to the possible costs for executing an employee survey with a target sample of 10,000 or more individuals. As a result, the project will have to proceed with the AI indexes that draw from international data, as have been collected and collated by the Hellenic Observatory team.

Drawing on the above, the next steps for the completion of the first phase of the project can be as follows:

- April 2026: the Hellenic Observatory team will collect and process the employment and job-flows data from MEKY; at the same time, the Hellenic Observatory team will also work further on the AI indexes, producing standardised versions of them and attempting various forms of aggregation (e.g., via linear-scale transformation) and dimensionality reduction (e.g., principal components analysis).
- May 2026: the Hellenic Observatory team will ‘map’ the AI indexes onto the employment data, looking both at the current picture (most recent data points) and at the short-term historical trend (data points since 2015); drawing on this, it will produce an analysis of the most exposed occupations, sectors and geographical areas in the country.
- June-July 2026: the Hellenic Observatory team will work with the Bank of Greece team for the production of a final report, covering material presented in this report but focusing mainly on the analysis of exposure (presentation of the results concerning the AI exposure of different occupations/sectors/regions on the basis of different AI indexes); the report will be published by the Hellenic Observatory and, if applicable, the Bank of Greece, with appropriate peer-reviewing (or internal reviewing) as required; a plan for dissemination (press conference, social media posts, seminar presentations) will also be discussed and devised.
- August 2026: in liaison with the Bank of Greece team, the Hellenic Observatory team will evaluate the obtained results and will devise a strategy for the work to be conducted under the second phase of the project in Year 2 of the collaboration, concerning the analysis of the employment / labour market effects of AI in Greece; in relation to this, some exploratory aggregate-level econometric analysis may be pursued, examining employment growth by occupation cell in relation to AI exposure before and after the popularisation of GenAI in the country.

The outcome of this activity will be a broad measurement of the theoretical exposure of jobs to AI in the country and the identification of possible sectoral and geographical ‘hotspots’ where these

pressures may be concentrated. This will add to the limited existing literature on the topic (Tyros, 2025; Kollia and Sideris, 2025) by offering a significantly broader coverage of AI indexes, including ones that concern actual usage (Anthropic) and ones that concern sub-domains (language modelling, image generation), which have not been used before in studies covering Greece.

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Appendix – Harmonised Dataset and Crosswalk Methodology

Data Sources and Native Classifications

The harmonised dataset integrates nine distinct sources of AI occupational exposure indices, yielding seventeen index variants at the ISCO-08 4-digit occupation level. The principal sources include Felten et al. (2021, 2023) with four variants (AIOE, AIOI, language model GenAI, and image generation GenAI exposures); Eisfeldt et al. (2023) with three variants (total, core, and supplemental GenAI exposure); Webb (2019) patent-based AI exposure; and Brynjolfsson, Mitchell, and Rock (2018) with the Suitability for Machine Learning (SML) index. The Anthropic Economic Index (2025) includes total, automation, and augmentation components. The ILO Gmyrek studies (2023, 2025) provide two temporal variants; Frey and Osborne (2017) contribute computerisation probability; Tolan et al. (2021) provide the COPE index; and Tomlinson et al. (2025) provide an AI applicability score.

A fundamental challenge in constructing this harmonised dataset stems from the heterogeneity of native occupational classification systems. Six sources (Felten, Eisfeldt, Webb, SML, and Frey and Osborne) originate from the U.S. Standard Occupational Classification (SOC 2010). The Anthropic Economic Index (2025) derives from Claude.ai consumer platform conversation logs mapped to O*NET tasks via the Clio classification tool, with automation and augmentation components. The Tomlinson index employs the more recent SOC 2018 classification. In contrast, the ILO studies and Tolan et al. employ ISCO-08 classifications directly, though at coarser granularity: the ILO Gmyrek indices are published at ISCO-08 2-digit level (40 major groups), while Tolan's COPE index operates at ISCO-08 3-digit level. This classification heterogeneity necessitates a systematic crosswalk methodology to enable comparative analysis across indices.

Crosswalk Strategy

The primary crosswalk instrument is the IBS Poland SOC-2010 to ISCO-08 concordance (soc10_isco08.dta), sourced from the iscoCrosswalks R package repository. This concordance contains 1,131 mapping entries covering 839 unique SOC 2010 codes and 436 unique ISCO-08 codes. The crosswalk methodology accommodates the inherent many-to-many relationship between classification systems: a single SOC occupation may map to multiple ISCO-08 occupations, and conversely, a single ISCO occupation may receive contributions from multiple SOC sources.

For many-to-many mappings, the methodology applies equal-weight averaging. When a SOC occupation maps to multiple ISCO codes, its exposure score is distributed equally across all recipient ISCO occupations. Formally, if SOC occupation i with exposure score E_i maps to n ISCO occupations, each recipient ISCO code receives a contribution of E_i / n . Subsequently, when aggregating at the ISCO level, the contributions from all source SOC occupations are averaged. This approach preserves the bounded nature of probability-scaled indices (such as

Frey and Osborne's computerisation probabilities) while avoiding double-counting of exposure across occupational classifications.

The Tomlinson et al. (2025) index requires additional processing due to its native SOC 2018 classification. While SOC 2018 maintains substantial continuity with SOC 2010, approximately 40 occupational codes were restructured between versions, particularly affecting information technology occupations (SOC 2018 codes beginning 15-12xx), physicians (29-12xx), and health aide occupations (31-1xxx). The processing script implements explicit manual mappings from SOC 2018 to their SOC 2010 equivalents prior to applying the standard SOC-2010 to ISCO-08 crosswalk. This two-stage remapping ensures consistent treatment across temporal vintages of the SOC classification system.

Propagation Rules

For indices published at coarser ISCO granularity, propagation rules assign identical scores to all constituent occupations. The ILO Gmyrek indices (2023 and 2025) are published at ISCO-08 2-digit level, representing 40 major occupational groups. Each 2-digit score is propagated to all 4-digit occupations within that group, resulting in complete coverage of 345 ISCO-08 4-digit codes but eliminating within-group variation. Similarly, the Tolan et al. (2021) COPE index operates at ISCO-08 3-digit level (115 minor groups), with 3-digit scores propagated to all 4-digit children. These propagation rules ensure comprehensive coverage but represent a limitation: occupations sharing the same 2-digit or 3-digit parent category exhibit identical index values, precluding analysis of within-group heterogeneity for these measures.

Coverage Statistics

Coverage varies substantially across indices. At full ISCO-08 4-digit granularity (345 occupations), the Claude indices achieve complete coverage (345/345, 100%), followed by the ILO Gmyrek indices (345/345, 100%, via propagation) and Tolan COPE (335/345, 97.1%, via propagation). The Felten AIOE covers 329 occupations (95.4%), with AIOI having slightly lower coverage at 304 (88.1%). The Eisfeldt GenAI variants achieve 330/345 (95.7%). The Webb and SML indices have more limited coverage at 288/345 (83.5%), reflecting their derivation from different source data. The Frey and Osborne index covers 311/345 occupations (90.1%), constrained by its original sample of 702 SOC occupations. The Tomlinson AI applicability score achieves 327/345 (94.8%). Coverage differences arise from variations in original data collection scope, temporal vintage of occupational classifications, and the granularity of source occupational taxonomies.

Correlation Structure

The correlation matrix reveals substantial heterogeneity in what these indices measure. The Frey and Osborne (2017) computerisation probability exhibits negative correlations with most contemporary AI exposure measures, ranging from -0.31 with Felten AIOE to -0.40 with Felten image generation GenAI, suggesting that this automation risk measure captures a fundamentally different construct than modern AI capability-based indices. In contrast, the ILO Gmyrek 2023 and 2025 indices are highly correlated (0.96), indicating strong temporal stability in the ILO

methodology while showing moderate convergence with ability-based measures such as Tolan COPE (0.73–0.82) and Felten AIOE (0.64–0.70).

The Felten variants demonstrate moderate to strong intercorrelations (0.77–0.88), particularly between AIOE and AIOI (0.85) and between language model and image generation GenAI exposures (0.70). The Webb AI patent exposure index exhibits near-zero correlations with most other measures (ranging from –0.11 to 0.15), suggesting that patent-based technological capability measures diverge substantially from ability-based and task-based exposure assessments. The Claude and Tomlinson indices show moderate convergence with ability-based measures (0.56–0.65 correlations with Tolan COPE and ILO Gmyrek), supporting their validity as measures of AI occupational applicability. These correlation patterns show that the seventeen indices, while all purporting to measure AI exposure, capture distinct aspects of the technology-occupation interface, and researchers should exercise caution in treating them as interchangeable measures of a single underlying construct.

Index data

Table A1: AI Exposure Index Scores by ISCO-08 4-Digit Occupation

Code	Occupation	Felten AIOE	Felten AIOI	Felten LM	Felten IMG	Eisfeldt	Webb	SML	Claude	ILO 2023	ILO 2025	F&O	COPE	Tomlinson
1111	Legislators	—	—	—	—	0.108	—	—	0.000	0.296	0.341	—	0.391	0.269
1112	Senior government officials	1.558	0.683	0.963	0.982	0.724	0.375	3.473	0.010	0.296	0.341	0.059	0.391	0.155
1113	Traditional chiefs and heads of village	0.445	—	1.309	1.310	0.268	0.252	3.468	0.010	0.296	0.341	0.015	0.391	0.212
1114	Senior officials of special-interest organisations	0.651	0.706	0.990	0.772	0.230	0.248	3.473	0.015	0.296	0.341	0.142	0.391	0.156
1120	Managing directors and chief executives	0.527	0.683	0.993	0.771	0.202	0.250	3.470	0.010	0.296	0.341	0.087	0.412	0.133
1211	Finance managers	0.723	0.723	1.295	1.331	0.218	0.463	3.541	0.007	0.283	0.386	0.069	0.445	0.149
1212	Human resource managers	3.903	—	1.388	0.910	1.301	0.489	3.454	0.014	0.283	0.386	0.324	0.445	0.157
1213	Policy and planning managers	0.138	0.722	0.910	0.964	0.060	—	—	0.006	0.283	0.386	0.250	0.445	0.153
1219	Business services and administration managers not elsewhere classified	3.928	0.708	0.943	0.795	1.721	0.248	3.395	0.019	0.283	0.386	0.355	0.445	0.132
1221	Sales and marketing managers	2.581	0.715	1.249	1.310	0.744	0.803	3.561	0.009	0.283	0.386	0.013	0.432	0.177
1222	Advertising and public relations managers	1.726	0.714	1.300	1.367	0.494	0.224	3.605	0.049	0.283	0.386	0.027	0.432	0.185
1223	Research and development managers	2.165	0.716	0.944	1.320	0.943	0.357	3.465	0.019	0.283	0.386	0.018	0.432	0.147
1311	Agricultural and forestry production managers	-0.072	—	-0.158	0.016	0.042	0.855	3.493	0.002	0.329	0.353	0.047	0.248	0.076
1312	Aquaculture and fisheries production managers	-0.072	—	-0.158	0.016	0.042	0.855	3.493	0.002	0.329	0.353	0.047	0.248	0.076
1321	Manufacturing managers	0.509	0.691	0.354	0.655	0.227	0.576	3.531	0.000	0.329	0.353	0.030	0.302	0.120
1322	Mining managers	0.138	0.722	0.910	0.964	0.060	—	—	0.006	0.329	0.353	0.250	0.302	0.153
1323	Construction managers	0.515	0.718	0.636	1.857	0.090	0.901	3.442	0.001	0.329	0.353	0.071	0.302	0.145
1324	Supply, distribution and related managers	0.891	0.700	0.905	0.773	0.425	—	—	0.003	0.329	0.353	0.590	0.302	0.205
1330	Information and communications technology service managers	1.060	0.711	0.945	1.275	0.559	0.331	3.548	0.009	0.329	0.353	0.035	0.482	0.152
1341	Child care services managers	0.838	0.680	0.967	0.426	0.353	—	—	0.003	0.329	0.353	0.015	0.405	0.125
1342	Health services managers	0.630	0.685	1.315	0.852	0.153	0.611	3.519	0.003	0.329	0.353	0.007	0.405	0.159
1343	Aged care services managers	0.712	0.684	0.996	0.542	0.195	0.429	3.496	0.003	0.329	0.353	0.084	0.405	0.146
1344	Social welfare managers	1.156	0.701	1.225	0.790	0.375	0.237	3.531	0.002	0.329	0.353	0.007	0.405	0.156
1345	Education managers	2.864	0.705	1.124	0.525	0.682	0.363	3.535	0.042	0.329	0.353	0.007	0.405	0.116
1346	Financial and insurance services branch managers	0.805	0.703	0.986	0.781	0.260	0.391	3.518	0.007	0.329	0.353	0.115	0.405	0.129
1349	Professional services managers not elsewhere classified	0.138	0.722	0.910	0.964	0.060	—	—	0.006	0.329	0.353	0.250	0.405	0.153

Code	Occupation	Felten AIOE	Felten AIOI	Felten LM	Felten IMG	Eisfeldt	Webb	SML	Claude	ILO 2023	ILO 2025	F&O	COPE	Tomlinson
1411	Hotel managers	0.402	0.709	0.464	0.205	0.229	0.362	3.379	0.002	0.396	0.368	0.004	0.278	0.183
1412	Restaurant managers	-0.121	0.669	0.061	-0.710	0.196	0.283	3.477	0.000	0.396	0.368	0.083	0.278	0.091
1420	Retail and wholesale trade managers	0.082	0.683	0.678	0.232	0.042	0.248	3.473	0.000	0.396	0.368	0.160	0.325	0.110
1431	Sports, recreation and cultural centre managers	0.968	0.706	0.815	0.847	0.165	0.178	3.537	0.007	0.396	0.368	0.170	0.348	0.179
1439	Services managers not elsewhere classified	0.138	0.722	0.910	0.964	0.060	—	—	0.006	0.396	0.368	0.250	0.348	0.153
2111	Physicists and astronomers	3.005	0.725	1.015	1.834	1.168	1.046	3.390	0.011	0.351	0.386	0.190	0.521	0.229
2112	Meteorologists	1.659	0.724	1.086	1.473	0.557	0.908	3.417	0.004	0.351	0.386	0.550	0.521	0.246
2113	Chemists	1.303	0.709	0.675	1.327	0.627	0.626	3.491	0.023	0.351	0.386	0.184	0.521	0.218
2114	Geologists and geophysicists	1.640	0.724	0.678	1.179	0.876	0.598	3.506	0.012	0.351	0.386	0.358	0.521	0.175
2120	Mathematicians, actuaries and statisticians	7.198	0.727	1.224	1.540	3.189	0.572	3.516	0.136	0.351	0.386	0.148	0.582	0.276
2131	Biologists, botanists, zoologists and related professionals	7.797	0.708	0.787	1.118	3.487	0.560	3.347	0.090	0.351	0.386	0.080	0.453	0.217
2132	Farming, forestry and fisheries advisers	0.992	0.689	0.399	0.667	0.601	0.732	3.414	0.005	0.351	0.386	0.012	0.453	0.192
2133	Environmental protection professionals	1.083	0.695	0.472	0.736	0.745	1.095	3.486	0.006	0.351	0.386	0.025	0.453	0.164
2141	Industrial and production engineers	1.138	0.712	0.905	1.485	0.441	0.543	3.605	0.002	0.351	0.386	0.029	0.478	0.253
2142	Civil engineers	1.283	0.731	0.927	1.977	0.336	0.532	3.410	0.001	0.351	0.386	0.019	0.478	0.205
2143	Environmental engineers	1.344	0.725	1.044	1.890	0.518	0.335	3.347	0.001	0.351	0.386	0.018	0.478	0.208
2144	Mechanical engineers	3.832	0.714	0.707	1.487	1.309	0.529	3.532	0.009	0.351	0.386	0.132	0.478	0.201
2145	Chemical engineers	1.341	0.730	0.906	2.256	0.346	1.420	3.301	0.000	0.351	0.386	0.017	0.478	0.172
2146	Mining engineers, metallurgists and related professionals	3.630	0.712	0.908	1.683	0.841	0.703	3.470	0.004	0.351	0.386	0.086	0.478	0.213
2149	Engineering professionals not elsewhere classified	4.592	0.709	0.787	1.515	2.043	0.870	3.477	0.046	0.351	0.386	0.034	0.478	0.228
2151	Electrical engineers	1.127	0.715	0.901	1.510	0.455	0.333	3.477	0.004	0.351	0.386	0.100	0.548	0.110
2152	Electronics engineers	1.475	0.712	0.717	1.333	0.617	0.675	3.568	0.032	0.351	0.386	0.122	0.548	0.294
2153	Telecommunications engineers	0.333	0.710	0.457	1.105	0.256	0.592	3.615	0.002	0.351	0.386	0.025	0.548	0.274
2161	Building architects	1.047	0.722	0.610	2.389	0.375	0.564	3.425	0.005	0.351	0.386	0.018	0.418	0.175
2162	Landscape architects	1.034	0.714	0.836	1.780	0.211	0.736	3.352	0.002	0.351	0.386	0.045	0.418	0.218
2163	Product and garment designers	1.447	0.706	0.534	1.637	0.478	0.571	3.330	0.003	0.351	0.386	0.029	0.418	0.240
2164	Town and traffic planners	1.228	0.720	1.075	1.642	0.540	0.587	3.484	0.000	0.351	0.386	0.130	0.418	0.330
2165	Cartographers and surveyors	0.963	0.702	0.176	1.205	0.612	0.561	3.497	0.001	0.351	0.386	0.630	0.418	0.163
2166	Graphic and multimedia designers	1.422	0.708	0.480	1.881	0.228	1.054	3.552	0.067	0.351	0.386	0.049	0.418	0.180
2211	Generalist medical practitioners	3.559	0.709	0.970	0.738	0.855	0.285	3.377	0.019	0.259	0.260	—	0.382	0.126
2212	Specialist medical practitioners	2.100	0.685	0.483	0.339	0.753	0.413	3.413	0.015	0.259	0.260	—	0.382	0.115
2221	Nursing professionals	0.661	—	0.236	-0.029	0.637	0.335	3.488	0.041	0.259	0.260	—	0.298	0.113
2222	Midwifery professionals	0.197	—	0.305	-0.124	0.286	0.432	3.427	0.002	0.259	0.260	—	0.298	0.125

Code	Occupation	Felten AIOE	Felten AIOI	Felten LM	Felten IMG	Eisfeldt	Webb	SML	Claude	ILO 2023	ILO 2025	F&O	COPE	Tomlinson
2230	Traditional and complementary medicine professionals	0.237	0.690	0.679	0.653	0.066	—	—	0.003	0.259	0.260	0.020	0.275	0.094
2240	Paramedical practitioners	0.106	0.681	0.040	0.054	0.073	0.184	3.498	0.006	0.259	0.260	0.140	0.318	0.051
2250	Veterinarians	-0.075	0.672	-0.084	-0.138	0.130	0.645	3.512	0.003	0.259	0.260	0.038	0.345	0.155
2261	Dentists	-0.415	0.670	-0.218	0.156	0.150	0.390	3.378	0.004	0.259	0.260	0.021	0.332	0.067
2262	Pharmacists	0.606	0.691	0.571	0.478	0.214	0.166	3.500	0.021	0.259	0.260	0.012	0.332	0.278
2263	Environmental and occupational health and hygiene professionals	1.527	0.702	0.783	0.655	0.793	0.355	3.422	0.003	0.259	0.260	0.107	0.332	0.236
2264	Physiotherapists	-0.391	0.648	0.124	-0.845	0.142	0.601	3.377	0.014	0.259	0.260	0.021	0.332	0.147
2265	Dieticians and nutritionists	1.343	0.714	1.364	1.184	0.286	0.395	3.411	0.033	0.259	0.260	0.004	0.332	0.221
2266	Audiologists and speech therapists	1.779	0.700	1.019	0.117	0.383	0.414	3.418	0.000	0.259	0.260	0.005	0.332	0.143
2267	Optometrists and ophthalmic opticians	0.504	0.703	0.200	1.061	0.000	1.077	3.621	0.001	0.259	0.260	0.140	0.332	0.066
2269	Health professionals not elsewhere classified	2.536	0.670	0.571	0.256	1.218	0.482	3.353	0.015	0.259	0.260	0.012	0.332	0.134
2310	University and higher education teachers	43.394	0.707	1.524	0.444	11.746	0.012	3.400	0.630	0.369	0.329	—	0.502	0.321
2320	Vocational education teachers	1.056	0.672	0.486	-0.011	0.790	0.304	3.493	0.069	0.369	0.329	0.134	0.428	0.182
2330	Secondary education teachers	1.191	0.679	1.249	0.934	0.234	0.369	3.504	0.013	0.369	0.329	0.008	0.415	0.176
2341	Primary school teachers	2.173	0.683	1.150	0.791	0.261	0.347	3.498	0.019	0.369	0.329	0.087	0.378	0.183
2342	Early childhood educators	0.395	0.674	0.488	-0.381	0.180	0.345	3.458	0.004	0.369	0.329	0.079	0.378	0.179
2351	Education methods specialists	1.302	0.710	1.324	1.276	0.450	0.228	3.379	0.233	0.369	0.329	0.004	0.398	0.314
2352	Special needs teachers	2.702	—	0.738	0.000	0.924	—	—	0.043	0.369	0.329	0.012	0.398	0.180
2353	Other language teachers	1.878	0.689	1.250	0.431	0.538	0.370	3.458	0.165	0.369	0.329	0.160	0.398	0.224
2354	Other music teachers	0.088	0.668	0.825	-0.041	0.031	0.370	3.458	0.005	0.369	0.329	0.130	0.398	0.242
2355	Other arts teachers	0.530	0.668	1.155	0.245	0.102	0.370	3.458	0.103	0.369	0.329	0.130	0.398	0.242
2356	Information technology trainers	0.599	—	1.323	0.948	0.237	0.262	3.509	0.001	0.369	0.329	0.014	0.398	0.242
2359	Teaching professionals not elsewhere classified	0.929	0.707	1.341	0.480	0.278	—	—	0.162	0.369	0.329	0.009	0.398	0.256
2411	Accountants	4.279	0.727	1.219	1.313	1.506	0.500	3.547	0.024	0.491	0.496	0.957	0.542	0.247
2412	Financial and investment advisers	2.091	0.722	1.334	0.989	0.694	0.681	3.403	0.038	0.491	0.496	0.405	0.542	0.292
2413	Financial analysts	3.562	0.728	1.241	1.265	1.325	0.599	3.451	0.012	0.491	0.496	0.460	0.542	0.205
2421	Management and organisation analysts	2.730	0.723	1.314	1.267	0.922	0.396	3.393	0.015	0.491	0.496	0.071	0.498	0.233
2422	Policy administration professionals	0.524	0.669	0.925	1.221	0.269	—	—	0.016	0.491	0.496	0.230	0.498	0.219
2423	Personnel and careers professionals	3.943	0.711	1.387	0.791	1.620	0.473	3.633	0.076	0.491	0.496	0.239	0.498	0.188
2424	Training and staff development professionals	0.599	—	1.323	0.948	0.237	0.262	3.509	0.001	0.491	0.496	0.014	0.498	0.242
2431	Advertising and marketing professionals	1.921	0.706	1.263	1.283	0.866	1.111	3.617	0.150	0.491	0.496	0.324	0.518	0.402
2432	Public relations professionals	1.285	0.713	1.518	0.691	0.694	0.214	3.422	0.035	0.491	0.496	0.180	0.518	0.365

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2433	Technical and medical sales professionals (excluding ICT)	0.443	0.707	1.106	0.972	0.216	0.323	3.526	0.016	0.491	0.496	0.163	0.518	0.241
2434	Information and communications technology sales professionals	1.589	0.709	1.079	1.093	0.636	0.338	3.515	0.026	0.491	0.496	0.110	0.518	0.260
2511	Systems analysts	2.352	—	1.007	1.572	1.251	—	—	0.245	0.404	0.537	0.011	0.622	0.241
2512	Software developers	2.484	—	1.024	1.587	1.186	—	—	1.000	0.404	0.537	0.086	0.622	0.289
2513	Web and multimedia developers	0.545	—	0.789	1.765	0.337	—	—	0.166	0.404	0.537	—	0.622	0.325
2514	Applications programmers	1.272	—	1.025	1.673	0.853	—	—	0.413	0.404	0.537	0.480	0.622	0.310
2519	Software and applications developers and analysts not elsewhere classified	0.616	—	1.044	1.596	0.290	—	—	0.415	0.404	0.537	—	0.622	0.298
2521	Database designers and administrators	1.285	—	0.996	1.730	0.568	—	—	0.089	0.404	0.537	0.030	0.598	0.305
2522	Systems administrators	0.395	—	0.475	1.476	0.262	—	—	0.093	0.404	0.537	0.030	0.598	0.253
2523	Computer network professionals	0.580	—	0.495	0.893	0.594	—	—	0.018	0.404	0.537	—	0.598	0.252
2529	Database and network professionals not elsewhere classified	1.866	—	1.044	1.603	1.040	—	—	0.432	0.404	0.537	—	0.598	0.260
2611	Lawyers	1.329	0.718	1.454	1.036	0.386	0.299	3.472	0.013	0.400	0.392	0.035	0.552	0.180
2612	Judges	2.871	0.719	1.597	0.695	0.619	0.819	3.352	0.016	0.400	0.392	0.520	0.552	0.108
2619	Legal professionals not elsewhere classified	1.432	0.715	1.647	0.796	0.525	0.613	3.331	0.009	0.400	0.392	0.060	0.552	0.112
2621	Archivists and curators	1.413	0.690	0.674	1.080	0.762	0.223	3.354	0.028	0.400	0.392	0.383	0.458	0.262
2622	Librarians and related information professionals	1.488	0.699	0.625	1.094	0.600	0.249	3.439	0.032	0.400	0.392	0.520	0.458	0.254
2631	Economists	1.404	0.718	1.330	1.299	0.569	0.326	3.463	0.011	0.400	0.392	0.430	0.378	0.328
2632	Sociologists, anthropologists and related professionals	3.544	0.711	1.283	0.957	1.240	0.663	3.403	0.028	0.400	0.392	0.106	0.378	0.279
2633	Philosophers, historians and political scientists	3.182	0.705	1.421	0.933	1.134	0.777	3.347	0.062	0.400	0.392	0.173	0.378	0.394
2634	Psychologists	4.249	0.720	1.461	1.127	1.106	0.478	3.453	0.129	0.400	0.392	0.007	0.378	0.221
2635	Social work and counselling professionals	7.600	0.698	1.156	0.302	1.472	0.358	3.468	0.078	0.400	0.392	0.043	0.378	0.228
2636	Religious professionals	2.493	0.702	1.413	0.672	0.387	0.258	3.621	0.052	0.400	0.392	0.017	0.378	0.249
2641	Authors and related writers	2.242	0.712	1.226	1.214	1.328	0.388	3.570	0.336	0.400	0.392	0.328	0.482	0.398
2642	Journalists	1.751	0.712	1.331	0.906	0.905	0.251	3.578	0.098	0.400	0.392	0.083	0.482	0.375
2643	Translators, interpreters and other linguists	1.775	0.694	1.218	0.920	1.017	0.018	3.517	0.070	0.400	0.392	0.210	0.482	0.341
2651	Visual artists	-0.470	0.649	-0.808	0.340	0.063	0.337	3.476	0.009	0.400	0.392	0.038	0.348	0.190
2652	Musicians, singers and composers	0.879	0.677	0.661	-0.532	0.333	—	—	0.014	0.400	0.392	0.044	0.348	0.111
2653	Dancers and choreographers	-4.246	0.581	-1.340	-2.961	0.036	0.143	3.244	0.013	0.400	0.392	0.067	0.348	0.123
2654	Film, stage and related directors and producers	2.947	0.701	0.748	1.809	0.673	0.344	3.445	0.040	0.400	0.392	0.118	0.348	0.175

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2655	Actors	0.159	0.673	0.578	-0.413	0.053	0.116	3.317	0.086	0.400	0.392	0.370	0.348	0.131
2656	Announcers on radio, television and other media	2.678	0.699	1.042	0.332	0.958	0.102	3.350	0.007	0.400	0.392	0.296	0.348	0.396
3111	Chemical and physical science technicians	0.329	0.678	0.019	0.606	0.625	0.217	3.524	0.014	0.319	0.295	0.697	0.398	0.142
3112	Civil engineering technicians	1.137	0.686	-0.091	0.832	1.111	0.955	3.399	0.008	0.319	0.295	0.565	0.398	0.153
3113	Electrical engineering technicians	-0.064	0.687	-0.245	0.669	0.283	0.779	3.412	0.003	0.319	0.295	0.825	0.398	0.211
3114	Electronics engineering technicians	0.088	0.696	0.078	0.998	0.112	—	—	0.002	0.319	0.295	0.840	0.398	0.233
3115	Mechanical engineering technicians	0.168	0.678	-0.180	0.498	0.774	0.870	3.476	0.007	0.319	0.295	0.477	0.398	0.218
3116	Chemical engineering technicians	0.049	0.678	-0.079	0.699	0.047	—	—	0.005	0.319	0.295	0.240	0.398	0.233
3117	Mining and metallurgical technicians	0.090	0.679	-0.053	0.541	0.227	—	—	0.006	0.319	0.295	0.575	0.398	0.166
3118	Draughtspersons	2.390	0.702	0.228	1.590	1.178	0.269	3.708	0.012	0.319	0.295	0.513	0.398	0.221
3119	Physical and engineering science technicians not elsewhere classified	1.357	0.683	-0.076	0.667	2.064	0.483	3.416	0.009	0.319	0.295	0.342	0.398	0.137
3121	Mining supervisors	-0.153	0.671	-0.360	-0.012	0.083	0.543	3.367	0.000	0.319	0.295	0.170	0.278	0.110
3123	Construction supervisors	-0.153	0.671	-0.360	-0.012	0.083	0.543	3.367	0.000	0.319	0.295	0.170	0.278	0.110
3131	Power production plant operators	0.895	0.689	0.047	0.445	0.454	0.886	3.474	0.000	0.319	0.295	0.614	0.318	0.134
3132	Incinerator and water treatment plant operators	-1.229	0.657	-0.595	-0.327	0.363	0.919	3.476	0.001	0.319	0.295	0.597	0.318	0.106
3134	Petroleum and natural gas refining plant operators	-1.780	0.659	-0.767	-0.141	0.500	0.681	3.392	0.000	0.319	0.295	0.825	0.318	0.079
3139	Process control technicians not elsewhere classified	-0.012	0.675	-0.341	0.547	0.234	—	—	0.017	0.319	0.295	0.360	0.318	—
3141	Life science technicians (excluding medical)	0.318	0.683	-0.005	0.510	0.707	0.879	3.518	0.013	0.319	0.295	0.535	0.345	0.074
3142	Agricultural technicians	0.096	0.682	-0.049	0.433	0.325	—	—	0.008	0.319	0.295	0.970	0.345	0.084
3143	Forestry technicians	-0.667	0.657	-0.761	-0.110	0.143	0.292	3.382	0.004	0.319	0.295	0.420	0.345	0.032
3151	Ships' engineers	-0.421	0.681	-0.085	0.328	0.288	0.131	3.384	0.000	0.319	0.295	0.260	0.298	0.118
3152	Ships' deck officers and pilots	-0.323	0.687	-0.160	0.713	0.186	0.137	3.383	0.000	0.319	0.295	0.336	0.298	0.144
3153	Aircraft pilots and related associate professionals	-0.283	0.688	-0.272	0.866	0.245	0.390	3.422	0.000	0.319	0.295	0.367	0.298	0.141
3154	Air traffic controllers	1.258	0.703	0.320	1.120	0.161	0.276	3.439	0.000	0.319	0.295	0.283	0.298	0.154
3155	Air traffic safety electronics technicians	0.185	0.702	0.162	1.054	0.146	0.137	3.383	0.002	0.319	0.295	0.775	0.298	0.219
3211	Medical imaging and therapeutic equipment technicians	-1.026	0.661	-0.231	-0.179	0.705	0.345	3.468	0.001	0.255	0.246	0.273	0.328	0.099
3212	Medical and pathology laboratory technicians	0.154	0.676	-0.163	0.517	0.259	1.086	3.475	0.003	0.255	0.246	0.685	0.328	0.114
3213	Pharmaceutical technicians and assistants	0.007	0.675	-0.023	-0.143	0.357	0.084	3.474	0.000	0.255	0.246	0.920	0.328	0.111
3221	Nursing associate professionals	-0.514	0.641	-0.298	-1.111	0.130	0.214	3.426	0.001	0.255	0.246	0.058	0.268	0.034
3222	Midwifery associate professionals	0.077	—	0.279	-0.135	0.020	—	—	0.003	0.255	0.246	—	0.268	0.153

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3230	Traditional and complementary medicine associate professionals	0.077	—	0.279	-0.135	0.020	—	—	0.003	0.255	0.246	—	0.242	0.153
3240	Veterinary technicians and assistants	-0.749	0.644	-0.436	-0.986	0.184	0.545	3.531	0.002	0.255	0.246	0.445	0.258	0.045
3251	Dental assistants and therapists	-0.680	0.649	-0.349	-0.792	0.118	0.147	3.364	0.001	0.255	0.246	0.595	0.282	0.056
3252	Medical records and health information technicians	0.574	0.673	0.552	0.529	0.488	0.314	3.393	0.003	0.255	0.246	0.910	0.282	0.264
3253	Community health workers	0.037	—	0.135	-0.167	0.241	0.267	3.647	0.000	0.255	0.246	—	0.282	0.297
3255	Physiotherapy technicians and assistants	-1.704	0.647	-0.083	-1.016	0.066	0.245	2.990	0.004	0.255	0.246	0.193	0.282	0.061
3256	Medical assistants	0.229	0.679	0.159	-0.156	0.175	0.268	3.528	0.002	0.255	0.246	0.300	0.282	0.035
3257	Environmental and occupational health inspectors and associates	0.281	0.681	0.018	0.381	0.627	0.793	3.651	0.001	0.255	0.246	0.530	0.282	0.157
3259	Health associate professionals not elsewhere classified	-1.171	0.663	-0.041	-0.339	1.163	0.262	3.407	0.015	0.255	0.246	0.099	0.282	0.102
3311	Securities and finance dealers and brokers	0.774	0.710	1.259	1.021	0.313	0.404	3.477	0.018	0.493	0.464	0.045	0.478	0.201
3312	Credit and loans officers	2.771	0.721	1.416	0.631	0.846	0.425	3.537	0.042	0.493	0.464	0.510	0.478	0.268
3313	Accounting associate professionals	0.520	0.723	0.818	0.760	0.433	0.152	3.723	0.006	0.493	0.464	0.980	0.478	0.244
3314	Statistical, mathematical and related associate professionals	3.351	0.717	0.872	1.129	2.497	0.623	3.576	0.291	0.493	0.464	0.767	0.478	0.249
3315	Valuers and loss assessors	2.779	0.713	0.772	1.056	1.163	1.015	3.397	0.001	0.493	0.464	0.953	0.478	0.236
3321	Insurance representatives	2.814	0.716	1.316	1.059	0.704	0.430	3.566	0.004	0.493	0.464	0.662	0.418	0.200
3322	Commercial sales representatives	2.568	0.703	1.123	0.765	1.450	0.246	3.558	0.031	0.493	0.464	0.392	0.418	0.309
3323	Buyers	3.097	0.701	1.008	0.782	1.139	0.768	3.566	0.003	0.493	0.464	0.643	0.418	0.203
3324	Trade brokers	1.477	0.709	1.258	1.093	0.524	0.435	3.517	0.018	0.493	0.464	0.360	0.418	0.204
3331	Clearing and forwarding agents	0.330	0.676	0.259	0.336	0.483	0.466	3.557	0.001	0.493	0.464	0.985	0.398	0.197
3332	Conference and event planners	0.374	0.672	0.513	0.199	0.452	0.623	3.415	0.003	0.493	0.464	0.037	0.398	0.147
3333	Employment agents and contractors	0.245	0.715	0.577	-0.017	0.221	0.190	3.616	0.005	0.493	0.464	0.970	0.398	0.121
3334	Real estate agents and property managers	3.376	0.711	1.131	0.981	0.949	0.340	3.504	0.029	0.493	0.464	0.679	0.398	0.189
3339	Business services agents not elsewhere classified	6.197	0.705	1.174	1.012	2.696	0.348	3.484	0.062	0.493	0.464	0.298	0.398	0.250
3341	Office supervisors	1.039	0.717	1.134	0.626	0.621	0.277	3.576	0.026	0.493	0.464	0.014	0.425	0.245
3342	Legal secretaries	1.015	0.705	1.149	0.481	0.643	0.166	3.691	0.002	0.493	0.464	0.980	0.425	0.207
3343	Administrative and executive secretaries	1.915	0.707	1.005	0.197	1.273	0.155	3.697	0.029	0.493	0.464	0.680	0.425	0.261
3344	Medical secretaries	2.281	0.707	1.247	0.228	1.350	0.260	3.703	0.008	0.493	0.464	0.850	0.425	0.133
3351	Customs and border inspectors	-0.165	0.672	-0.088	0.020	0.296	0.276	3.461	0.004	0.493	0.464	0.061	0.382	0.142
3352	Government tax and excise officials	1.367	0.724	1.253	1.043	0.440	0.244	3.542	0.002	0.493	0.464	0.930	0.382	0.340
3353	Government social benefits officials	0.846	0.706	0.994	0.569	0.366	0.198	3.489	0.006	0.493	0.464	0.390	0.382	0.241
3354	Government licensing officials	1.399	0.702	0.954	0.546	0.697	—	—	0.009	0.493	0.464	0.270	0.382	0.224
3355	Police inspectors and detectives	0.162	0.671	-0.023	0.132	0.364	0.276	3.461	0.006	0.493	0.464	0.172	0.382	0.114

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3411	Legal and related associate professionals	4.637	0.694	0.851	0.497	1.791	0.207	3.449	0.011	0.336	0.318	0.660	0.348	0.123
3412	Social work associate professionals	0.465	0.681	0.557	0.072	0.250	0.066	3.540	0.001	0.336	0.318	0.130	0.348	0.255
3421	Athletes and sports players	-1.814	0.596	-1.290	-2.461	0.000	0.479	3.213	0.000	0.336	0.318	0.280	0.218	0.222
3422	Sports coaches, instructors and officials	0.172	0.671	0.333	0.064	0.258	0.330	3.297	0.011	0.336	0.318	0.374	0.218	0.196
3423	Fitness and recreation instructors and program leaders	-2.312	0.637	0.025	-1.047	0.210	0.212	3.423	0.011	0.336	0.318	0.075	0.218	0.195
3431	Photographers	-0.168	0.681	-0.382	0.929	0.052	0.809	3.593	0.008	0.336	0.318	0.021	0.298	0.246
3432	Interior designers and decorators	0.068	0.668	-0.024	0.769	0.580	0.383	3.436	0.006	0.336	0.318	0.169	0.298	0.205
3433	Gallery, museum and library technicians	-0.258	0.663	-0.283	-0.135	0.372	0.226	3.427	0.006	0.336	0.318	0.538	0.298	0.216
3434	Chefs	-0.396	0.666	-0.161	-0.484	0.297	0.396	3.388	0.004	0.336	0.318	0.365	0.298	0.134
3435	Other artistic and cultural associate professionals	-0.453	0.651	-0.296	-0.331	0.159	0.624	3.463	0.000	0.336	0.318	0.610	0.298	0.185
3511	Information and communications technology operations technicians	0.704	0.695	0.408	1.144	0.579	0.469	3.486	0.028	0.435	0.444	0.780	0.498	—
3512	Information and communications technology user support technicians	0.299	—	0.326	0.255	0.625	—	—	0.027	0.435	0.444	—	0.498	0.334
3513	Computer network and systems technicians	0.786	—	0.657	1.020	0.673	—	—	0.027	0.435	0.444	—	0.498	0.302
3514	Web technicians	0.939	—	0.632	1.620	0.599	—	—	0.259	0.435	0.444	0.030	0.498	0.307
3521	Broadcasting and audiovisual technicians	1.061	0.679	0.084	0.338	0.560	0.629	3.412	0.008	0.435	0.444	0.600	0.448	0.159
3522	Telecommunications engineering technicians	0.088	0.696	0.078	0.998	0.112	—	—	0.002	0.435	0.444	0.840	0.448	0.233
4110	General office clerks	2.477	0.710	1.250	0.674	1.264	0.234	3.587	0.123	0.695	0.625	0.970	0.438	0.249
4120	Secretaries (general)	1.099	0.715	1.254	0.264	0.766	0.099	3.659	0.073	0.695	0.625	0.960	0.415	0.256
4131	Typists and word processing operators	0.622	0.702	0.507	0.526	0.850	0.112	3.603	0.035	0.695	0.625	0.810	0.455	0.265
4132	Data entry clerks	0.311	0.694	0.172	0.294	0.722	0.848	3.698	0.002	0.695	0.625	0.990	0.455	0.315
4211	Bank tellers and related clerks	0.213	0.671	0.074	-0.676	0.522	0.121	3.689	0.000	0.646	0.521	0.965	0.378	0.234
4212	Bookmakers, croupiers and related gaming workers	1.920	0.681	0.387	-0.117	0.633	0.250	3.588	0.002	0.646	0.521	0.616	0.378	0.253
4214	Debt-collectors and related workers	2.515	0.714	1.337	0.741	1.208	0.233	3.510	0.008	0.646	0.521	0.950	0.378	0.178
4221	Travel consultants and clerks	0.940	0.698	0.987	0.360	0.668	0.380	3.586	0.019	0.646	0.521	0.261	0.358	0.246
4222	Contact centre information clerks	1.294	0.706	1.054	0.436	0.707	0.515	3.602	0.012	0.646	0.521	0.755	0.358	0.324
4223	Telephone switchboard operators	2.003	0.698	1.328	-0.680	0.906	0.320	3.667	0.003	0.646	0.521	0.965	0.358	0.320
4224	Hotel receptionists	1.462	0.692	0.891	0.095	0.562	0.058	3.740	0.008	0.646	0.521	0.575	0.358	0.304
4225	Enquiry clerks	0.913	0.706	1.109	0.583	0.509	0.233	3.582	0.016	0.646	0.521	0.910	0.358	0.263
4226	Receptionists (general)	0.338	0.698	1.033	0.457	0.140	0.421	3.607	0.002	0.646	0.521	0.960	0.358	0.241

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4227	Survey and market research interviewers	1.297	0.710	1.449	0.206	0.618	0.201	3.339	0.004	0.646	0.521	0.940	0.358	0.232
4229	Client information workers not elsewhere classified	0.613	0.714	1.417	0.313	0.235	0.198	3.489	0.003	0.646	0.521	0.700	0.358	0.283
4311	Accounting and bookkeeping clerks	1.853	0.724	0.977	0.895	1.017	0.152	3.723	0.009	0.577	0.532	0.970	0.448	0.234
4312	Statistical, finance and insurance clerks	6.365	0.718	1.261	0.649	2.346	0.144	3.658	0.008	0.577	0.532	0.968	0.448	0.286
4313	Payroll clerks	1.258	0.724	1.155	0.782	0.773	0.060	3.577	0.001	0.577	0.532	0.970	0.448	0.218
4321	Stock clerks	-0.954	0.653	-0.538	-0.629	0.837	0.442	3.658	0.003	0.577	0.532	0.857	0.368	0.136
4322	Production clerks	0.700	0.709	0.661	0.619	0.765	0.220	3.573	0.000	0.577	0.532	0.880	0.368	0.258
4323	Transport clerks	1.235	0.719	1.128	1.069	0.308	0.613	3.676	0.000	0.577	0.532	0.960	0.368	0.232
4411	Library clerks	0.223	0.673	0.228	-0.265	0.482	0.118	3.528	0.010	0.582	0.508	0.970	0.352	0.203
4412	Mail carriers and sorting clerks	-3.567	0.642	-0.778	-1.185	0.962	0.209	3.610	0.000	0.582	0.508	0.860	0.352	0.122
4413	Coding, proof-reading and related clerks	1.288	0.723	1.436	0.642	0.955	0.776	3.519	0.004	0.582	0.508	0.840	0.352	0.369
4414	Scribes and related workers	-0.148	0.653	0.211	-0.776	0.054	—	—	0.009	0.582	0.508	0.408	0.352	0.291
4415	Filing and copying clerks	-0.233	0.673	-0.169	-0.008	0.830	0.368	3.735	0.002	0.582	0.508	0.945	0.352	0.206
4416	Personnel clerks	1.353	0.721	1.481	0.776	0.500	0.208	3.503	0.011	0.582	0.508	0.900	0.352	0.217
4419	Clerical support workers not elsewhere classified	1.414	0.708	0.973	0.618	0.895	0.061	3.541	0.015	0.582	0.508	0.920	0.352	0.303
5111	Travel attendants and travel stewards	-0.941	0.682	-0.138	-0.880	0.190	0.128	3.544	0.001	0.275	0.224	0.376	0.278	0.217
5112	Transport conductors	-0.179	0.682	-0.025	-0.388	0.090	—	—	0.001	0.275	0.224	0.390	0.278	0.210
5113	Travel guides	1.009	0.657	0.639	-0.040	0.296	0.171	3.643	0.005	0.275	0.224	0.348	0.278	0.303
5120	Cooks	-2.590	0.654	-0.535	-0.658	0.394	0.172	3.380	0.007	0.275	0.224	0.732	0.178	0.153
5131	Waiters	-1.312	0.637	-0.457	-1.720	0.140	0.172	3.430	0.002	0.275	0.224	0.900	0.162	0.189
5132	Bartenders	-0.616	0.649	-0.411	-1.073	0.000	0.091	3.472	0.001	0.275	0.224	0.770	0.162	0.178
5141	Hairdressers	-1.028	0.651	-0.177	-0.501	0.170	0.098	3.377	0.004	0.275	0.224	0.329	0.148	0.151
5142	Beauticians and related workers	-1.893	0.655	-0.184	-0.363	0.212	0.275	3.348	0.004	0.275	0.224	0.371	0.148	0.118
5151	Cleaning and housekeeping supervisors in offices, hotels and other establishments	-0.293	0.649	-0.367	-0.983	0.115	0.497	3.517	0.004	0.275	0.224	0.940	0.222	0.158
5152	Domestic housekeepers	-0.293	0.649	-0.367	-0.983	0.136	0.497	3.517	0.004	0.275	0.224	0.940	0.222	0.158
5162	Companions and valets	-0.148	0.653	0.211	-0.776	0.075	—	—	0.009	0.275	0.224	0.408	0.198	0.291
5163	Undertakers and embalmers	-1.466	0.643	-0.310	-0.720	0.306	0.121	3.665	0.002	0.275	0.224	0.455	0.198	0.111
5164	Pet groomers and animal care workers	-2.150	0.644	-0.305	-1.035	0.193	0.633	3.366	0.003	0.275	0.224	0.464	0.198	0.158
5165	Driving instructors	0.088	0.668	0.825	-0.041	0.031	0.370	3.458	0.005	0.275	0.224	0.130	0.198	0.242
5169	Personal services workers not elsewhere classified	0.217	0.672	0.404	-0.520	0.620	0.163	3.482	0.020	0.275	0.224	0.279	0.198	0.233
5211	Stall and market salespersons	0.277	0.696	1.511	0.047	0.042	0.136	3.698	0.004	0.387	0.367	0.940	0.182	0.257
5212	Street food salespersons	-0.087	0.672	0.533	-0.639	0.042	0.184	3.555	0.004	0.387	0.367	0.900	0.182	0.187

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5221	Shop keepers	0.082	0.683	0.678	0.232	0.042	0.248	3.473	0.000	0.387	0.367	0.160	0.238	0.110
5222	Shop supervisors	0.019	0.662	0.201	-0.503	0.214	0.456	3.410	0.004	0.387	0.367	0.280	0.238	0.130
5223	Shop sales assistants	-0.031	0.667	0.172	-0.579	0.419	0.129	3.613	0.017	0.387	0.367	0.950	0.238	0.271
5230	Cashiers and ticket clerks	-0.298	0.659	-0.106	-0.614	0.372	0.386	3.670	0.050	0.387	0.367	0.900	0.275	0.220
5242	Sales demonstrators	0.124	0.672	0.334	-0.343	0.208	0.033	3.617	0.006	0.387	0.367	0.510	0.258	0.309
5243	Door to door salespersons	0.277	0.696	1.511	0.047	0.042	0.136	3.698	0.004	0.387	0.367	0.940	0.258	0.257
5244	Contact centre salespersons	1.118	0.688	1.926	-1.428	0.958	0.016	3.414	0.002	0.387	0.367	0.990	0.258	0.404
5245	Service station attendants	-1.213	0.655	-0.520	-0.490	0.019	0.203	3.391	0.000	0.387	0.367	0.429	0.258	0.094
5246	Food service counter attendants	-1.979	0.621	-0.687	-1.658	0.036	0.044	3.540	0.001	0.387	0.367	0.930	0.258	0.112
5249	Sales workers not elsewhere classified	0.078	0.659	0.143	-0.423	0.312	0.058	3.683	0.011	0.387	0.367	0.970	0.258	0.344
5311	Child care workers	-0.340	0.657	0.230	-0.384	0.083	0.449	3.483	0.009	0.231	0.200	0.080	0.218	0.226
5312	Teachers' aides	0.452	0.695	0.748	-0.355	0.267	0.107	3.448	0.016	0.231	0.200	0.560	0.218	0.192
5321	Health care assistants	-1.401	0.662	-0.395	-1.379	0.119	0.432	3.319	0.001	0.231	0.200	0.470	0.198	0.048
5322	Home-based personal care workers	-0.793	0.651	0.006	-0.845	0.120	0.098	3.329	0.009	0.231	0.200	0.402	0.198	0.171
5329	Personal care workers in health services not elsewhere classified	-4.679	0.647	-0.401	-1.063	0.991	0.240	3.434	0.006	0.231	0.200	0.578	0.198	0.041
5411	Fire-fighters	-1.518	0.640	-0.962	-0.631	0.089	—	—	0.000	0.173	0.172	0.087	0.248	0.040
5412	Police officers	-1.219	0.656	-0.527	-0.484	0.272	0.349	3.443	0.001	0.173	0.172	0.224	0.248	0.104
5413	Prison guards	-1.446	0.641	-0.515	-1.118	0.265	0.407	3.441	0.015	0.173	0.172	0.312	0.248	0.116
5414	Security guards	-0.534	0.670	-0.171	0.061	0.504	0.485	3.539	0.000	0.173	0.172	0.895	0.248	0.173
5419	Protective services workers not elsewhere classified	-1.735	0.659	-0.211	-0.377	0.900	0.327	3.443	0.002	0.173	0.172	0.463	0.248	0.162
6113	Gardeners, horticultural and nursery growers	-2.195	0.635	-1.102	-1.009	0.110	0.615	3.479	0.001	0.199	0.183	0.670	0.118	0.075
6310	Subsistence crop farmers	-0.320	0.620	-1.432	-1.591	0.003	—	—	0.007	0.119	0.125	—	0.102	0.048
6330	Subsistence mixed crop and livestock farmers	-0.542	0.629	-1.261	-1.245	0.003	0.487	3.402	0.007	0.119	0.125	—	0.098	0.096
7111	House builders	0.515	0.718	0.636	1.857	0.090	0.901	3.442	0.001	0.123	0.127	0.071	0.158	0.145
7114	Concrete placers, concrete finishers and related workers	-4.045	0.623	-1.437	-1.300	0.042	0.173	3.274	0.001	0.123	0.127	0.883	0.158	0.058
7115	Carpenters and joiners	-1.324	0.622	-1.245	-1.140	0.000	—	—	0.000	0.123	0.127	0.720	0.158	0.056
7119	Building frame and related trades workers not elsewhere classified	-5.350	0.630	-1.153	-0.829	0.280	0.309	3.510	0.001	0.123	0.127	0.543	0.158	0.089
7121	Roofers	-1.753	0.607	-1.553	-1.779	0.018	0.391	3.399	0.000	0.123	0.127	0.900	0.148	0.009
7122	Floor layers and tile setters	-5.840	0.618	-1.309	-1.378	0.000	0.426	3.345	0.000	0.123	0.127	0.820	0.148	0.043
7123	Plasterers	-4.944	0.620	-1.473	-1.534	0.038	0.285	3.278	0.001	0.123	0.127	0.750	0.148	0.064
7126	Plumbers and pipe fitters	-2.347	0.637	-1.150	-0.904	0.033	0.217	3.310	0.002	0.123	0.127	0.485	0.148	0.058
7127	Air conditioning and refrigeration mechanics	-0.851	0.652	-0.505	-0.246	0.058	0.844	3.551	0.001	0.123	0.127	0.327	0.148	0.122
7131	Painters and related workers	-3.316	0.609	-1.473	-1.554	0.026	0.319	3.300	0.000	0.123	0.127	0.810	0.142	0.083
7213	Sheet-metal workers	-2.634	0.639	-1.101	-0.527	0.080	0.291	3.489	0.000	0.155	0.165	0.780	0.178	0.059

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7222	Toolmakers and related workers	-3.126	0.656	-0.769	-0.036	0.668	0.341	3.519	0.017	0.155	0.165	0.773	0.188	0.083
7223	Metal working machine tool setters and operators	-5.689	0.645	-1.030	-0.672	0.559	0.564	3.466	0.002	0.155	0.165	0.871	0.188	0.121
7231	Motor vehicle mechanics and repairers	-8.922	0.641	-0.950	-0.753	0.221	0.373	3.372	0.001	0.155	0.165	0.645	0.198	0.082
7233	Agricultural and industrial machinery mechanics and repairers	-8.789	0.639	-1.089	-0.772	0.530	0.472	3.370	0.005	0.155	0.165	0.622	0.198	0.094
7311	Precision-instrument makers and repairers	-0.437	0.677	-0.408	0.644	0.156	0.552	3.483	0.001	0.173	0.190	0.558	0.158	0.132
7313	Jewellery and precious-metal workers	-0.156	0.685	-0.637	1.035	0.031	—	—	0.001	0.173	0.190	0.950	0.158	0.113
7314	Potters and related workers	-0.383	0.638	-1.079	-0.447	0.041	0.276	3.435	0.001	0.173	0.190	0.468	0.158	0.229
7317	Handicraft workers in wood, basketry and related materials	-0.186	0.641	-0.917	-0.234	0.040	0.276	3.435	0.001	0.173	0.190	0.035	0.158	0.198
7319	Handicraft workers not elsewhere classified	-0.186	0.641	-0.917	-0.234	0.040	0.276	3.435	0.001	0.173	0.190	0.035	0.158	0.198
7321	Pre-press technicians	0.755	0.699	-0.033	1.697	0.748	0.693	3.666	0.015	0.173	0.190	0.565	0.218	0.222
7411	Building and related electricians	-1.252	0.647	-0.977	-0.228	0.067	0.579	3.481	0.002	0.179	0.204	0.150	0.238	0.156
7412	Electrical mechanics and fitters	-7.965	0.650	-0.843	-0.361	0.744	0.491	3.439	0.001	0.179	0.204	0.644	0.238	0.117
7421	Electronics mechanics and servicers	-1.528	0.663	-0.569	-0.030	0.617	0.559	3.473	0.015	0.179	0.204	0.536	0.278	0.147
7422	Information and communications technology installers and servicers	-3.593	0.658	-0.706	-0.195	0.668	0.466	3.435	0.019	0.179	0.204	0.583	0.278	0.142
7512	Bakers, pastry-cooks and confectionery makers	-0.385	0.663	-0.474	-0.054	0.083	0.142	3.497	0.001	0.174	0.170	0.890	0.162	0.091
7513	Dairy-products makers	-0.659	0.649	-0.738	-0.616	0.118	0.469	3.480	0.000	0.174	0.170	0.790	0.162	0.088
7522	Cabinet-makers and related workers	-4.311	0.638	-1.144	-0.681	0.275	0.487	3.470	0.004	0.174	0.170	0.915	0.152	0.114
7531	Tailors, dressmakers, furriers and hatters	-0.431	0.665	-0.607	0.132	0.000	0.706	3.490	0.008	0.174	0.170	0.840	0.142	0.048
7532	Garment and related pattern-makers and cutters	-1.580	0.654	-0.798	-0.276	0.299	0.555	3.602	0.002	0.174	0.170	0.532	0.142	0.085
7543	Product graders and testers (excluding foods and beverages)	-0.029	0.675	-0.156	0.112	0.500	0.699	3.547	0.003	0.174	0.170	0.980	0.158	0.093
7544	Fumigators and other pest and weed controllers	-1.888	0.649	-0.714	-0.527	0.188	0.692	3.477	0.001	0.174	0.170	0.733	0.158	0.104
8114	Cement, stone and other mineral products machine operators	-2.085	0.644	-1.022	-0.609	0.235	0.358	3.375	0.001	0.195	0.190	0.880	0.168	0.060
8132	Photographic products machine operators	-0.362	—	-0.498	0.062	0.062	0.660	3.594	0.001	0.195	0.190	0.990	0.198	0.244
8142	Plastic products machine operators	-6.191	0.640	-1.083	-0.820	0.177	0.488	3.458	0.000	0.195	0.190	0.906	0.172	0.101
8152	Weaving and knitting machine operators	-1.242	0.628	-1.156	-1.502	0.150	0.985	3.538	0.002	0.195	0.190	0.730	0.148	0.091

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8154	Bleaching, dyeing and fabric cleaning machine operators	-0.861	0.645	-0.923	-0.829	0.042	1.045	3.448	0.001	0.195	0.190	0.970	0.148	0.104
8160	Food and related products machine operators	-1.588	0.650	-0.801	-0.700	0.135	0.392	3.447	0.000	0.195	0.190	0.816	0.158	0.149
8189	Stationary plant and machine operators not elsewhere classified	-2.310	0.645	-0.969	-0.680	0.279	0.533	3.410	0.000	0.195	0.190	0.922	0.178	0.165
8211	Mechanical machinery assemblers	-1.825	0.644	-0.986	-0.546	0.133	0.481	3.530	0.000	0.340	0.290	0.805	0.168	0.065
8212	Electrical and electronic equipment assemblers	-2.527	0.659	-0.737	-0.112	0.450	0.322	3.436	0.001	0.340	0.290	0.922	0.168	0.136
8311	Locomotive engine drivers	-3.752	0.658	-0.892	-0.091	0.432	0.855	3.420	0.001	0.198	0.189	0.676	0.198	0.125
8312	Railway brake, signal and switch operators	-1.675	0.656	-0.606	-0.185	0.272	0.306	3.339	0.000	0.198	0.189	0.563	0.198	0.110
8321	Motorcycle drivers	-0.231	0.659	-0.427	-0.261	0.071	0.133	3.713	0.000	0.198	0.189	0.484	0.178	0.143
8322	Car, taxi and van drivers	-3.303	0.657	-0.727	-0.258	0.253	0.170	3.518	0.001	0.198	0.189	0.568	0.178	0.124
8331	Bus and tram drivers	-1.202	0.668	-0.656	0.360	0.260	0.515	3.422	0.002	0.198	0.189	0.612	0.168	0.143
8332	Heavy truck and lorry drivers	-1.140	0.659	-0.666	0.034	0.196	0.495	3.405	0.000	0.198	0.189	0.409	0.168	0.145
8343	Crane, hoist and related plant operators	-2.895	0.659	-0.688	-0.381	0.265	0.688	3.428	0.001	0.198	0.189	0.654	0.152	0.114
9111	Domestic cleaners and helpers	-0.740	0.607	-1.031	-2.102	0.000	0.086	3.375	0.000	0.117	0.116	0.690	0.118	0.008
9112	Cleaners and helpers in offices, hotels and other establishments	-2.034	0.611	-1.220	-1.757	0.014	0.180	3.380	0.000	0.117	0.116	0.573	0.118	0.066
9211	Crop farm labourers	-0.320	0.620	-1.432	-1.591	0.003	—	—	0.007	0.105	0.108	—	0.098	0.048
9213	Mixed crop and livestock farm labourers	-0.542	0.629	-1.261	-1.245	0.003	0.487	3.402	0.007	0.105	0.108	—	0.098	0.096
9214	Garden and horticultural labourers	-2.145	0.620	-1.544	-1.646	0.003	0.128	3.417	0.008	0.105	0.108	0.950	0.098	0.045
9313	Building construction labourers	-12.119	0.609	-1.555	-1.637	0.052	0.184	3.421	0.000	0.135	0.142	0.800	0.118	0.041
9329	Manufacturing labourers not elsewhere classified	-4.309	0.627	-1.308	-1.314	0.387	0.336	3.383	0.000	0.135	0.142	0.813	0.108	0.138
9331	Hand and pedal vehicle drivers	-0.240	0.637	-0.922	-0.878	0.107	0.133	3.713	0.000	0.135	0.142	0.940	0.118	0.125
9333	Freight handlers	-2.551	0.643	-0.879	-0.874	0.532	0.349	3.364	0.001	0.135	0.142	0.514	0.118	0.100
9334	Shelf fillers	-0.395	0.640	-0.523	-1.325	0.042	—	—	0.001	0.135	0.142	0.640	0.118	—
9411	Fast food preparers	-1.010	0.636	-0.479	-1.119	0.000	0.080	3.404	0.007	0.104	0.160	0.875	0.108	0.167
9412	Kitchen helpers	-3.929	0.612	-1.309	-2.066	0.065	0.043	3.482	0.001	0.104	0.160	0.850	0.108	0.072
9520	Street vendors (excluding food)	0.277	0.696	1.511	0.047	0.042	0.136	3.698	0.004	0.234	0.188	0.940	0.138	0.257
9621	Messengers, package deliverers and luggage porters	-1.512	0.622	-0.918	-1.419	0.110	0.170	3.702	0.001	0.212	0.215	0.885	0.118	0.161
9622	Odd job persons	-2.951	0.626	-1.061	-0.618	0.300	0.394	3.437	0.001	0.212	0.215	0.715	0.118	0.087
9629	Elementary workers not elsewhere classified	-2.064	0.660	-0.350	-0.738	0.211	0.340	3.539	0.002	0.212	0.215	0.790	0.118	0.176

